THE

Saturday Magazine.

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UNDER THE DIRECTION OF THE COMMITTEE OF GENERAL LITERATURE AND EDUCATION APPOINTED BY THE SOCIETY FOR PROMOTING CHRISTIAN KNOWLEDGE.

INTRODUCTION.

It was a favourite saying with a crabbed old Greek, that—a Great Book is a Great Evil. He said this before the grand invention of printing, when the making and reading of books, if not a great evil, was certainly a great trouble. The only mode in which a book could then be published, was by hiring persons to write out copy after copy, upon long rolls of parchment, or the coarse sort of paper which they called papyrus: and those who wished to read them, had to unrol the volume till they came to the place which they wanted. No wonder then that in those days books were but few, and knowledge was scarce. There were not many who could afford to buy books, and fewer still, perhaps, who could read them. Even the mighty and the noble were ignorant and unlettered, and the mass of the people were sunk in darkness and superstition. Nor did it seem possible, till the discovery of printing letters by means of moveable metal types, to bring the learning of the learned, and the wisdom of the wise, within reach and possession of all classes of the community.

After this most important discovery, which we owe to John Gutenberg, of Mayence, the reading as well as the making of books became so much more pleasant, that readers and authors increased to a degree unknown in former ages. A vast number of books, upon all subjects, were written by men of masterly genius and profound learning. There was no branch of knowledge which they did not cultivate and adorn; and their works, full of immense learning and deep research,—upon the knowledge and practice of our holy religion, upon history and philosophy, upon medicine and chemistry, upon geography and astronomy; in short, upon every thing connected with the advancement and refinement of mankind,—have come down to us for our improvement and instruction.

Now all these great books are very curious, many of them very useful, and some of them invaluable; yet they are very seldom opened by any man now-a-days, except to be dusted, although their names are from time to time to be found presiding over a modern work, to the spirit of which they may perhaps be altogether opposed. This neglect is partly owing to the circumstance that these books can rarely be met with out of public libraries, where a man cannot sit down comfortably to read them; partly to their occasional perplexity of thought and uncouth manner of speech; and partly also to their size—to their being such very great books—which makes it a work of months, sometimes of years, to get quite through some of them. Nevertheless, they were not without their effect on the world: many of the important truths which they contain, have been preserved and illustrated in later writings, more portable in form and easy of digestion.—And this improvement of their labours we hope to extend to a greater degree than has ever yet been done.

But this by the way—lest in offering to our readers a very little book indeed, we should be taken to join in the abuse of the authors of sundry great books in past times, so common in the mouths of men who set up their own age as the only one deserving of any regard, and their particular selves as the only persons worthy of being consulted in it. We are not of those who despise the wisdom of their forefathers; but we shall also show that we are alive to all the improvements of modern times, and ready to take every advantage of them. 'To every thing there is a season,' says the Preacher, 'and a time to every purpose under the heaven; a time to plant, and a time to pluck up that which is planted.' Time was to plant: and there never was a people whose forefathers planted more deeply and judiciously in Church and in State—for Literature and for Arms—than ours have done. It is now time to pluck up, not the stately tree of their wisdom—long may it flourish, the glory of all true Englishmen!—but the thousands of suckers and saplings around it; not to destroy, but to transplant, to graft, to disperse and to multiply the virtues of the ancient stock. Many a skilful hand is already employed in this good work. We come to help all those who may like our manner of helping. Our recommendation is the name of that venerable Society from the bosom of which we proceed, and our little Magazine will go forth every Saturday morning, like a skilful gardener, to plant in every corner of the land, within sight of every man's door, and within reach of every man's arm, a tree of true knowledge, which growing out of the fear of God, will, under God's blessing, we doubt not, bring forth in due season the fruits of honour and of power to the nation, and of plenty and peace and truth to all our loving countrymen.

An old Latin poet, a very fashionable man in his day, said that the most popular book would be that which mixed up the useful with the agreeable. We shall make such a mixture in this Magazine. By the side of the truly useful we shall place that which ought alone to be truly agreeable, and we will do our best to make one reflect light upon the other. Whether the information which we convey to our readers be given in the form of an essay or a tale, we shall keep in mind our great object of combining innocent amusement with sound instruction. We shall not relate ghost-stories, except to explain the delusions from which impressions of the reality of such things have proceeded, and will often proceed; we shall tell no Newgate legends of murder and robbery, except sometimes to point out the horrible excesses and dismal end to which a man may come, step by step, downwards, from the first dram he drank, the first oath he swore, and the first Lord's day he profaned. But then, on the other hand, we shall show forth some of the wonderful things of Natural History; we shall recount the origin and progress of some of the greatest of human inventions, such as Navigation, Printing, the Telescope, Steam-Engines, and so on; we shall remind our readers of remarkable events in the annals of our own dear country, and of other great kingdoms on the continent; and we shall sometimes, as occasion

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may serve, indulge ourselves with proving how sweetly the poets of England used to sing, and how sweetly some of them yet live to sing. One way or another we hope to be popular in this Magazine, which comes out on the Saturday, when most men have a pause from labor. We are not for interfering with the family talk, or the friendly walk, much less with the duties of the Sabbath, or the study of the Bible—and we trust every one of our readers has one. All these good things may be done and served, and yet there will be plenty of time for perusing these few pages; the reader shall never find in any one of them a line which shall be contrary in its tendency to the improvement and the happiness of any member of his family.

Thus much to explain the character and object of this Magazine! We hope to give good proofs that our intentions are as honest as our means of performance are great, and we trust that after a fair trial our readers will not think our wood-cuts or our engravings the best part of our work. For the present we say Farewell!—and put an end to this somewhat lengthy introduction.

ON THE RIGHT USE OF KNOWLEDGE.

KNOWLEDGE is power. This saying, which has been so strikingly illustrated by the history of the last fifty years, will no doubt be exemplified, in a still more remarkable manner, by the changes which the next ten or twenty years will produce in the state of society. Whether these changes will be for good or evil, must obviously depend upon the kind of knowledge which will be diffused through the mass of the community, and the direction which shall be given to it, in its application to the great purposes of life. If it be true that knowledge is power, this necessarily follows: for that power, whatever it is, may be for good or evil. It is a giant's strength, which it is excellent to have, if it be used for the ends of virtue and happiness; but which may be employed to the purposes of a tyrannous malice.

It is impossible that the cultivation of our natural faculties, even to the utmost pitch of advancement, can be in itself wrong: for it is plain, from the very constitution of our nature, that they are given us to be improved; and their improvement, when it is really improvement, may be made equally conducive to our comfort and happiness, as inhabitants of this material world, and to our preparation for a spiritual state of being. If we are to enter hereafter into such a state, it is so plain that no reasoning can make it plainer, that to prepare for it is the main business of our existence here; and therefore, such a cultivation or employment of our faculties as thwarts and impedes, instead of seconding and advancing the work of preparation, does not deserve the name of improvement. Whereas nothing can be more worthy of man, as a thinking and moral creature, destined to advance through successive steps to a higher and purer order of being, than the diligent exercise and quickening of his mind, and the enlargement of his knowledge, with reference and in subordination to the chief purpose of his existence.

We hold therefore, that knowledge is really valuable, when it is made directly or indirectly serviceable to the ends of virtue; when it is sanctified in its possession, and guided in its application, by religious principle and feeling. "Seeing," says Lord Bacon, "that knowledge is of the number of those things which are to be accepted of with caution and distinction, being now to open a fountain, such as it is not easy to discern where the issues and streams thereof will take and fall; I thought it good and necessary, in the first place, to make a strong and sound head, or bank, to rule and guide the course of the waters; by setting down this position, or firmament, namely, *That all knowledge is to be limited by Religion, and to be referred to use and action.*" This is a very natural and striking similitude. Religion is the strong mound and embankment, which confines the stream of human knowledge within its proper channel, and guides it along its intended course; so as to fertilize and beautify the country which it would otherwise inundate and lay waste.

With this guard, or firmament, as Bacon terms it, we may admit, that knowledge is not only power, but also virtue and happiness; a help, that is to say, to virtue, and an instrument of happiness, as far as happiness is to be found in any of the pursuits or acquirements of our present imperfect state. Knowledge, for instance, was a source of happiness to Newton and to Locke, far more abundant than pleasure or ambition; and it was auxiliary to virtue, because it withdrew their attention from objects of sensual enjoyment. But then Newton and Locke were Christians, and referred their extraordinary powers of mind, as well as the results of those powers, to the first Source of Light and Truth, under a deep sense of their own insufficiency, and of the limits which are set to the researches of the human mind. Newton, the most original and patient and sagacious of inquirers into natural and mathematical truth, spoke of himself, with reference to the secrets of God's nature and designs, as a child playing with pebbles on the sea-shore.

We have said, that in the case of these eminent philosophers, knowledge was not only power, but virtue and happiness, because they were Christians. With Voltaire, and Hume, and Gibbon, it was power; but it was not happiness, nor virtue; because it was not sanctified nor directed by Christian belief and principle. For surely that is not happiness, nor the source of happiness, which is no preservative against the most miserable ambition, the most restless uneasiness under the world's opinion, and the most disquieting views of futurity. Consider the following argument; it is of a very plain and practical kind. If our religion be true, no kind of knowledge can be really beneficial which causes us to neglect the study of God's word, or to undervalue and disregard his laws. On the other hand, there is no kind of knowledge, deserving of the name, with which religion interferes, either in its acquisition or right employment. On the contrary, religion tends to preserve the mind in that tranquil and contented state which is necessary to the successful pursuit of every branch of useful knowledge; it teaches us to set a right value upon it when acquired, and to employ it to the benefit of mankind. Moreover, it has an obvious tendency to secure to us even the present and temporal rewards of knowledge: for who, that is looking out for an able instructor for his children, a trusty steward for his estate, or a skilful workman to be employed about his premises, would not rather have a religious man, upon whose principles he could rely, than an unbeliever, a scoffer, and a drunkard? So that religion, which cannot in any case impede the acquirement of knowledge, nor interfere with its right application, enhances the value of it to its possessor, with respect both to the inward complacency which it affords him, and the present recompense to which it leads.

While laying up in the storehouse of his memory the materials of useful knowledge, which it will be our object to provide for him, let our reader bear in

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mind, that there is something to be known above and beyond the scope of unassisted human inquiry—something which transcends the highest flight of human intellect, and is of greater importance than its most sublime discoveries; and that is, the knowledge of God, of His attributes, His purposes, and His laws; a knowledge, for which man must be indebted to God himself, who has revealed it to him in His written Word. To this source and treasury of truth let him continually recur, for the purpose of humbling intellectual pride by the view of his own sinfulness and weakness; and of withdrawing his mind from too fixed and exclusive a contemplation of secondary causes, to the First Great Cause of all things. Let him accustom himself to trace the Creator in His creatures, to *rise through Nature up to Nature's God*, and to find, in the daily accumulating stores of knowledge, not only the means of worldly advancement, nor merely a resource for his hours of leisure or retirement, but fresh materials of humility and thankfulness. To a mind so disciplined, the pursuit of information will be at once delightful and profitable; and knowledge will be power, in the highest and noblest sense of the words,—the power of being and doing good.

ON THE STUDY OF NATURAL HISTORY.

It is rather a subject of surprise that, in our general associations, and mixed societies, in times so highly enlightened as the present, when many ancient prejudices are gradually flitting away, as reason and science dawn on mankind, we should meet with so few, comparatively speaking, who have any knowledge of, or take the least interest in, Natural History; or if the subject obtain a moment's consideration, it has no abiding-place in the mind, being dismissed as the fitting employ of children and inferior capacities. But the natural historian is required to attend to something more than the vagaries of butterflies, and the spinnings of caterpillars. His study, considered apart from the various branches of science which it embraces, is one of the most delightful occupations that can employ the attention of reasoning beings. And perhaps none of the amusements of human life are more satisfactory and dignified than the investigation and survey of the workings and ways of Providence in this created world of wonders, filled with his never-absent power. It occupies and elevates the mind, is inexhaustible in supply, and, while it furnishes meditation for the closet of the studious, gives to the reflections of the moralizing rambler, admiration and delight, and is an engaging companion that will communicate an interest to every rural walk.

We need not live with the humble denizens of the air, the tenants of the woods and hedges, or the grasses of the field; but to pass them by in utter disregard, is to neglect a large portion of rational pleasure open to our view, which may edify and employ many a passing hour, and, by easy steps, will often become the source whence flow contemplations of the highest order. Young minds cannot, I should conceive, be too strongly impressed with the simple wonders of creation by which they are surrounded: in the race of life they may be passed by, the business of life may not admit attention to them, or the unceasing cares of the world may smother early attainments; but they can never be injurious. They will give a bias to a reasoning mind, and tend in some after thoughtful, sobered hour, to comfort and to soothe. The little insights that we have obtained into Nature's works, are many of them the offspring of scientific research; and partial and uncertain as our labours are, yet a brief gleam will occasionally lighten the darksome path of the humble inquirer, and give him a momentary glimpse of hidden truths. Let not, then, the idle and the ignorant scoff at him who devotes an unemployed hour—

No calling left, no duty broke,

to investigate a moss, a fungus, a beetle, or a shell, in "ways of pleasantness and in paths of peace." They are al the formation of Supreme Intelligence, for a wise and worthy end, and may lead us by gentle steps and degrees to a faint notion of the powers of infinite wisdom. They have calmed and amused some of us worms and reptiles, and possibly bettered us for our change to a new and more perfect order of being.—*Journal of a Naturalist.*

TO SOLITUDE.

FROM THE REV. WILLIAM JONES.

Thou world, tumultuous and rude,
Farewell; and welcome solitude!
Here straight the path to Heaven lies;
Farewell, thou world of vanities!
Let nations and let princes rage,
Here lofty themes my thoughts engage;
The skies with hymns angelic ring;
With angels let *me* learn to sing!
Oh, here for ever may I dwell,
Far from the world's tumultuous swell,
Till Angels lift me to the skies,
And bear my soul to Paradise.
Oh, let me here, a hermit blest,
Enjoy a life of precious rest!

ANSWER.

FROM G. H. GLASSE.

Away with wishes fond and weak!
Why faint thy heart, and pale thy cheek?
Wilt thou the noble contest shun,
Where virtue is by labour won?
Wilt thou, Christ's soldier, dare to please
Thyself, in idle, monkish ease!
Is this a time to fold the hands
And shut the eyes, when hostile bands
Rush to the fight: their banners wave,
And challenge, impiously brave,
With bitter taunts and haughty boasts,
The armies of the Lord of Hosts?
Through camps thy journey to the skies,
And not through groves and grottoes, lies.
Lo! where thy Lord, his garments dyed
With blood, invites thee to his side!
Clothes thee with armour from above,
And tells thee, with a look of love,
One short but desperate conflict o'er,
The prize is bliss for evermore!

I have sat upon the shore, and waited for the gradual approach of the sea, and have seen its dancing waves and white surf, and admired that He who measured it with His hand had given to it such life and motion; and I have lingered till its gentle waters grew into mighty billows, and had well nigh swept me from my firmest footing. So have I seen a heedless youth gazing with a too curious spirit upon the sweet motions and gentle approaches of an inviting pleasure, till it has detained his eye and imprisoned his feet, and swelled upon his soul, and swept him to a swift destruction.—Montagu's *Dedication.*

He whose heart is not excited upon the spot which a martyr has sanctified by his sufferings, or at the grave of one who has largely benefited mankind, must be more inferior to the multitude in his moral, than he can possibly be raised above them in his intellectual nature.—Southey.

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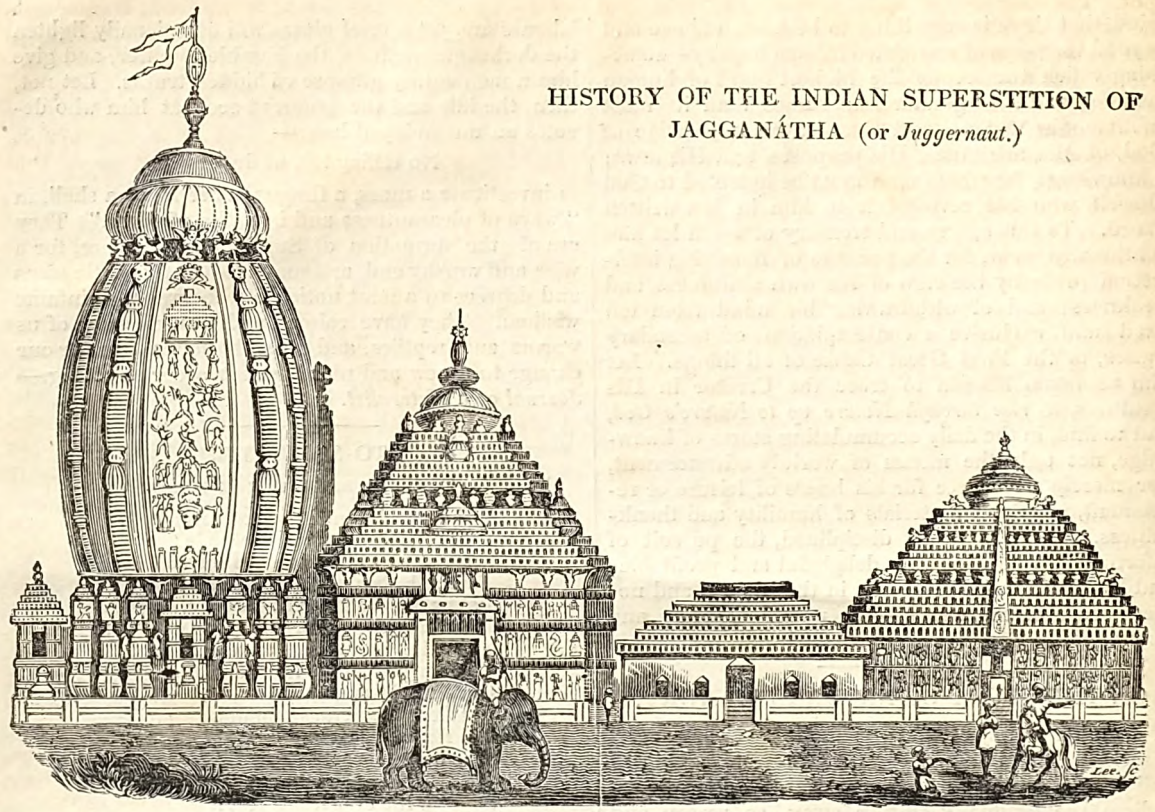
HISTORY OF THE INDIAN SUPERSTITION OF JAGGANÁTHA (or *Juggernaut.*)



View of the Temple of Jagganátha at Orissa.

THE celebrated temple of Jagganátha is situated in the district of Cuttack, on the sea-coast of Orissa, a province under the British Government of Bengal, in Lat. 19° 49′ N., and Lon. 85° 54′ E. The nominal chiefship of the country in which the temple is situated, is in the Rajah of Khoorda, a small principality, the capital of which stands about 20 miles S. W. of Cuttack. The aspect of the country on the sea-coast is low, covered with wood, and totally flooded by the sea at spring-tides; and into this stoneless expanse of swamp and forest the numerous rivers from the interior discharge their waters through many channels, as in the coasts of Bengal and Egypt. The district has only three towns, deserving to be so called, one of which, adjoining the temple, is called Pooree, or "The Town."

Under the ancient Hindoo governments, the territory of Cuttack appears to have been divided among petty chiefs, having no regular head: one among them was the Khoorda Rajah, the hereditary high-priest of Jagganátha and keeper of his wardrobe, who probably possessed considerable influence over the others.

The country was invaded at an early period by the Mahomedans, and was conquered by the Mahrattas in 1738, with whom it remained until conquered by the English in 1803. Afterwards, on the expulsion of the Mahrattas, a settlement was made with the tributary Rajahs, some of whom, however, though professing submission, tendered no tribute; among these was the Khoorda Rajah, then a boy of 18, who laid waste the adjoining country with fire and sword. A British army was in consequence collected, which had to conduct its operations in an almost impassable country, and amidst difficulties aggravated by the sanctity of the Rajah's priestly character. At length the Rajah voluntarily surrendered his sacred person, which was brought into camp, while the inhabitants of the adjacent districts came forth and fell down before him in humble adoration. On his surrender, he was allowed an ample pension, and was continued chief in authority over the temple of Jagganátha.

Every Hindoo temple or place of pilgrimage has its marvellous legend or history, describing the circumstances to which it owes its supposed holiness,—events generally dated in a former age of the world. The legend further pretends to contain an account of the foundation of the first temple or shrine, the different visits paid to it by their idol-gods and heroes, its discovery and renewal in the present age, the marvels which have resulted from its worship, and the benefactions made to it by modern sovereigns. The last part of the story is generally the only portion of these lying legends which contains any real history.

The legend of Jagganátha states that an ancient king of Ootkala, the Hindoo name of Orissa, pressed down by the weight of his sins, addressed himself to Brahma, the idol-god whom he had chosen for his peculiar divinity, for instruction as to what he could do that would obtain for him happiness in a future state of existence. Brahma, says the story, perceiving the sincerity of his sorrow and his piety, directed him to make inquiry after a certain shrine built by his ancestors, which formerly stood by the side of a hill, and was made of massy gold, and was the abode of Vishnu. It had been buried by the sands thrown up by the sea. The worshipper was further informed that, if he would restore the worship of the temple, and renew the offerings which were formerly made there, he would ensure to himself a dwelling of happiness after his death, and, by inducing this pretended god again to take up his abode on earth, would procure the same happiness to the human race. For more particular information of the spot where the temple stood, the king was referred to a tortoise, as old as the world, which he would find near the hill Nila.

Delighted with the wonderful intelligence, the king set out to find his informant; and, on approaching a lake under the hill, a prodigious tortoise approached him, and asked him what he sought in that desert

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spot. The king having informed him of his state and the object of his visit, was answered by the tortoise, that he well remembered the splendour of the ancient temple, but that age having impaired his memory, he could not distinctly point out the spot where it had stood; that Vishnu had long dwelt there, and that other gods often visited the spot for recreation and amusement; but that, owing to the neglect of the wonted sacrifices and offerings, he had returned to his own paradise. The tortoise, however, informed the anxious monarch, that on the borders of another lake he would find an immortal raven, with feathers white by age, and that from him he would attain complete satisfaction on the subject of his inquiry. The king lost no time in proceeding on his journey; and having found the immortal bird, he inquired of him every particular regarding the holy shrine, and its founders. The raven, deeply versed in ancient history, related to the delighted sovereign the deeds of his great ancestors, and especially the piety of him who obtained the favour of Vishnu's residence in the temple, which he had constructed for him of gold lined with precious stones: he added, "that time, which destroyed all things, had respected this magnificent edifice, which was only buried about ten miles below the surface of the earth: that after the disappearance of the temple, Vishnu, unwilling to quit the mountain, his favourite abode, had changed himself into a margosa tree (Malia Azadirachta, *Lin.)*; but the holy hermit, Markandia, perceiving that the tree gave no shade, breathed upon it, and reduced part of it to ashes; but as the tree was necessarily immortal, part of it still remained." Having communicated these important facts, the raven set out with the king to the spot where the temple was buried, and, removing the sand with his beak, exhibited to his royal companion the golden shrine, and then re-covered it as before.

The king now returned to Brahma to consult on his future proceedings, in order to awaken in the minds of the people the devotion which he thought this place ought ever to inspire. The god advised him to build a new temple on the same spot; but as the present age was so bad, it would not be safe that the material employed should be gold, as it would be stolen piecemeal by the visiters; he might therefore construct it of brick. The name by which the god to be worshipped was to be known, was that of Sri Jeo, or the Sacred Spirit; he was also to build a town near the temple: and Brahma further informed his worshipper, that when these works should be accomplished, Vishnu himself, in the form of the trunk of the partially-blasted tree, would appear on the sea-shore. "This trunk," said the god, "thou wilt convey with pomp to the new temple. The carpenter of the gods, Vishvakarma, shall himself come and fashion it into the image of Vishnu. And thou wilt place by his side his sister Subaddra, and his brother Balarama; and thou wilt cause daily sacrifices to be offered to him, and thus ensure to thyself, and to all who shall follow thy example, entrance into the paradise, Vaikoonta. Since Vishnu will not be able to consume all the food which will be prepared for him, the remnants may be eaten by men for their purification, and the remission of their sins. Happy they who may attain the smallest particle! To give thee an idea of the value of these remnants, if by accident any fragments should fall on the earth, the gods would scramble for them, even though dogs had already devoured a part; or should an outcast draw from the mouth of a dog rice then devoted to Vishnu, and put it in the mouth of a Bramin, so great is the efficacy of that rice, that it would instantly purify him from sin. The very sight of the temple will procure to those who visit it benefits incalculable. To receive stripes from the Bramins appointed to distribute the rice, is a work singularly meritorious. Indra, and all the gods, will visit the city; and Vishnu, who will reside there: the sand which the sea shall deposit on the side facing the temple, shall be called gold dust; whoever shall die on that sand, shall assuredly go to the paradise of Vishnu."

The monarch without delay set about the work; he built the city, and erected the temple; and, in due time, he saw the promised tree arrive on the shore. Having paid due adoration to the divine block, the king, with a hundred thousand men, bore the future idol in triumph to the city. The heavenly carpenter delayed not to arrive, and undertook the task of sculpture, promising to complete the work in one night, on condition that he was not interrupted, and that no one should inspect him; a single glance of the eye, it was announced, would cause him immediately to disappear never to return.

The sculptor of wood working in perfect silence, the king suspected that he had broken his engagement; and, to assure himself on the point, softly peeped through a crevice in the door, and saw with delight that the workman was diligently performing his task, and quickly withdrew. But Vishvakaram had perceived him, and instantly vanished, leaving the block with scarcely the rudest approach to the intended form. The king, nevertheless, considering the imperfect image to be divine, paid homage, and gave to it his daughter in marriage. This absurd story is still believed, and this monstrous image continues in the same form to this day, receiving adoration under the title of Jagganátha, or lord of the world.

[To be continued.]

THE ROCK SAMPHIRE.

Botanical topography, which treats of the stations as well as of the habitations of vegetables, is a subject not wholly without interest and value. It is well known that very different plants abound in different soils; that some grow on land, and some in water; that some like one, and some another situation. For example, to take plants which are very closely allied, the *lichens* are dry plants, and never grow under water; the *fuci* are watery plants, and never grow out of water: and the same may be said of many other plants, some of which are, as it were, the living boundaries of land

[*The Rock Samphire.*

and sea: thus, the Samphire *(Crithmum Maritimum,)* never grows but on the sea-shore, and yet it never

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grows within reach of the waves,—that is to say, it is never so near as to be wholly covered by the waters. It happened not long since, that a knowledge of this fact was useful in a way and at a time when botanic knowledge might, beforehand, have been expected to be of little practical importance.

During a violent storm in November, 1821, a vessel, passing through the English Channel, was driven on shore near Beachy Head; and the whole of the crew being washed overboard, four escaped from the wreck, only to be delivered as they thought to a more lingering and fearful, from its being a more gradual and equally inevitable death; for, having in the darkness of the night been cast upon the breakers, they found, when they had climbed up the highest of these low rocks, that the waves were rapidly encroaching on their asylum; and they doubted not, that when the tide should be at its height, the whole range would be entirely covered with water. The darkness of the night prevented any thing being seen beyond the spot upon which they stood, and this was continually decreasing by the successive encroachments of each advancing wave. The violence of the storm left no hope that their feeble voices, even if raised to the uttermost, could be heard on shore; and they knew that amidst the howling of the blast their cries could reach no other ear than that of God. What human arm could give assistance in such a situation? even if their distresses were known, how vain were the help of man! The circle of their existence here seemed gradually lessening before their eyes; their little span of earth gradually contracting to their destruction: already they had climbed to the highest points, and already the furious waters followed them, flinging over their devoted heads the foremost waves, as heralds of their speedily approaching dissolution. At this moment one of these wretched men, while they were debating whether they should not, in this extremity of ill, throw themselves upon the mercy of the waves, hoping to be cast upon some higher ground, as, even if they failed to reach it, a sudden would be better than a lingering death—in this dire extremity, one of these despairing creatures, to hold himself more firmly to the rock, grasped a weed, which, even wet as it was, he well knew, as the lightning's sudden flash afforded a momentary glare, was not a fucus, but a root of Samphire; and he recollected that this plant never grows under water. This then became more than an olive branch of peace, a messenger of mercy; by it they knew that He who alone can calm the raging of the seas, at whose voice alone the winds and the waves are still, had placed his landmark, had planted his standard here, and by this sign they were assured that He had said to the wild waste of waters, "Hitherto shalt thou come, and no further." Trusting, then, to the promise of this Angel of the Earth, they remained stationary during the remainder of that dreadful, but then comparatively happy night; and in the morning they were seen from the cliffs above, and conveyed in safety to the shore.—BURNETT'S *Introductory Lecture.*

Samphire, or *St. Peter's Wort*, very probably derives its English name, as etymologists contend, from the French name '*Herbe de St. Pierre*,' and hence, if such be the case, it would be more correctly written, according to Smith, *Sampire*, or, as degenerated from *St. Pierre*, san-pire.

The botanical name Crithmum has been given to this plant from the resemblance its seeds bear to grains of barley, the *crithe* of the Greeks.

SINGULAR PROPERTIES OF THE FIGURE 9.

MULTIPLY 9 by itself, or by any other single figure, and the two figures forming the product will, in each case, if added together, amount to 9: for example, 9 multiplied by 9 is 81, and 8 and 1 added together make 9; so on with the other figures.

The figures forming the amount of 1 2 3 4 5 6 7 8 9, added together, (viz. 45,) will also, if added together, make 9.

The amount of the several products or multiples of 9, (9, 18, 27, 36, 45, 54, 63, 72, 81,) namely 405, when divided by 9, gives a quotient of 45, and the figures forming either the dividend or the quotient, added together, make 9.

Multiply any row of figures either by 9, or by any one of the products of 9 multiplied by a single figure, as by 18, 27, 36, 45, 54, 63, 72, or 81, and the sum of the figures of the product added together will be divisible by 9.

Multiply the 9 digits in the following order, 1 2 3 4 5 6 7 8 9, by 9, or by any one of the products of 9 mentioned in the last paragraph, and the product will come out all in one figure, except the place of tens, which will be a 0, and that figure will be the one which, multiplied into 9, supplies the multiplier; that is, if you select 9 as the multiplier, the product will be (except the place of tens) all ones; if you select 18, all twos; if 27, all threes, and so on. Omit the 8 in the multiplicand, and the 0 will also vanish from the product, leaving it all ones, twos, threes, &c. as the case may be.

THERE is not any benefit so glorious in itself, but it may yet be exceedingly sweetened and improved by the manner of conferring it. The virtue, I know, rests in the *intent*; the profit, in the judicious application of the *matter*; but the beauty and ornament of an obligation lies in the *manner* of it.—SENECA.

POPULATION OF ENGLAND AND WALES, FROM THE YEAR 1700 TO 1831.

Year.	No. of Persons.	Year.	No. of Persons.	Year.	No. of Persons.	Year.	No. of Persons.
1700	5,475,000	1740	6,064,000	1780	7,953,000	1811	10,502,500
10	5,240,000	50	6,467,000	90	8,675,000	21	12,218,500
20	5,565,000	60	6,736,000	1801	9,168,000	31	14,594,500
30	5,796,000	70	7,428,000				

GENERAL SUMMARY, 1831.

England	13,089,336
Wales	805,236
Scotland	2,365,807
Army and Navy	277,017
Total	16,537,396

SCOTLAND.

Years	1801	1811	1821	1831
Number of Persons	1,652,400	1,865,900	2,135,300	2,365,807

No. Persons.	
Edinburgh, City of, in 1831	162,403

LONDON.

POPULATION IN THE YEARS	1700	1750	1801	1811	1821	1831
City of } Within the Walls	139,300	87,000	78,000	57,700	58,400	57,695
London } Without the Walls	69,000	57,300	56,300	68,000	72,000	67,878
City and Liberties of Westminster	130,000	152,000	165,000	168,600	189,400	202,080
Parishes within the Bills of Mortality	326,900	357,600	477.700	593,700	730,700	852,849
Parishes not within the Bills of Mortality	9,150	22,350	123,000	162,000	224,300	293,567
Totals	674,350	676,250	900,000	1,050,000	1,274,800	1,474,069

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METHOD is the very hinge of business; and there is no method without punctuality. Punctuality promotes the peace and good temper of a family. The calmness of mind which it produces is another advantage of punctuality. A man without punctuality is always in a hurry; he has no time to speak to you, because he is going elsewhere; and when he gets there, he is too late for his business; or he must hurry away to another before he can finish it. Punctuality gives weight to character. "Such a man has made an appointment: then I know he will keep it." And this begets punctuality in those with whom he lives; for, like other virtues, it propagates itself. Servants and children must be punctual, where the master of the family is so. Appointments become debts. If I have made an appointment with you, I owe you punctuality, and I have no right to throw away your time, even though I might my own. To be punctual is to do as we would be done by; for who likes to be kept waiting? Punctuality is the best of economy; for what have we that is so precious as time? Punctuality is part of piety towards God; for of what gift shall we be called to give so strict account as of those hours without which no other gift can be exercised at all.

WISDOM doth balance in her scales those true and false pleasures which do equally invite the senses; and rejecting all such as have no solid value or lasting refreshment, doth select and take to her bosom those delights that, proving immortal, do seem to smell and taste of that paradise from which they spring. Like the wise husbandman, who taking the rough grain which carries in its heart the bread to sustain life, doth trample under foot the gay and idle flowers which many times destroy it.—A. M.

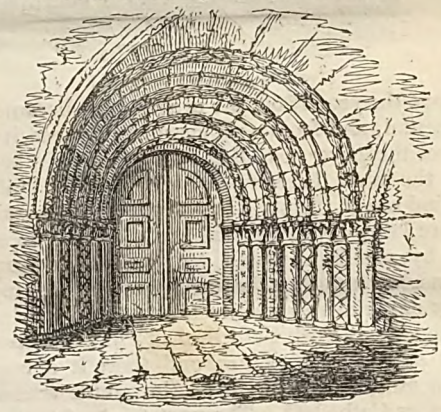
FAMILIAR REMARKS ON ARCHITECTURE.

I.

ALMOST every body occasionally travels from one part of the country to another, and amongst the many picturesque objects which attract the attention, none are more conspicuous than the churches and cathedrals in the villages or cities through which the traveller passes in his route. Even those who are prevented by circumstances from making these excursions, whose lot is cast in London, or in a country town, or in a remote village, have generally in the neighbourhood of their residence one or more of those venerable structures, which, whether considered in a religious or scientific point of view, call upon us for attention and admiration. When looking at any particular building, it naturally occurs to us to inquire how long it has been standing on the spot where we now see it. If any one be at hand we ask the question, and perhaps receive a satisfactory answer, though it is more probable that the answer will be one expressing a total ignorance of the subject. Most persons would, no doubt, be glad to possess a few rules, by the knowledge of which they might themselves be able to guess, within a few years, the age of the building they were surveying; and to supply these is the intention of the following remarks.

The doors and windows of old English churches, generally, have pointed arches; and from the shape of these arches, principally, though there are other lesser distinctions, the age of the building may be most accurately learned, as they have varied in height and width from age to age. Buildings constructed with arches of this description are usually called *Gothic*. a name given to them originally as a term of reproach, because they were supposed formerly to be the remains of the architectural taste of the *Goths*, and considered to be very inferior to the productions of Greece and Rome. A more correct name for them, however, though one not so frequently employed, is the *English* style, because buildings of this kind were first introduced in England, and no other country can boast finer specimens than are still remaining here.

Before the introduction of the English or pointed arch, the circular or rounded arch was in use; and a few very beautiful examples of this kind of building still remain in different parts of the country. It is called Saxon or Norman, from its having prevailed during the reign of the Saxon and Norman kings in England. It commenced at the establishment of Christianity among the Saxons, in the 6th century, and continued to about the year 1135, in the reign of king Stephen. The entrance to the Temple Church, London; the Abbey Gate, Bristol; and the Church of Romsey, in Hampshire, are in this style of architecture. The doors in this style are sometimes quite plain, and sometimes very richly carved.



[*Entrance to the Temple Church.*]

Between the reign of Stephen and that of Henry III., the circular arch began to disappear; and before the death of the latter monarch, gave way to the pointed arch. At first the two arches were intermixed; and the style was then called, *semi—or half-Norman*. Some suppose that the pointed arch was introduced from the Saracens, by the Crusaders to the Holy Land, and from this circumstance, they call it the Saracenic arch; but the greater number of persons imagine it to have arisen from the accidental crossing of several rounded arches with each other. That this will produce pointed arches of different widths and heights, according to the points where they cross each other, may easily be shown by placing two hoops or rings across each other, allowing one point of the hoops or rings to rest upon a floor or table. The crossings of the boughs of trees in an avenue, also afford a familiar illustration of the same fact. In the Temple Church, the two arches may be found united, and other specimens may be seen in the church of St. Cross, near Winchester; the ruins of Buildwas Abbey, Shropshire; Fountains Abbey, Rievaulx Abbey, and Roche Abbey, in Yorkshire.

When the circular arch totally disappeared, in 1220, the *Early English Style* commenced. The windows of this style were at first very narrow in comparison with their height: they were called lancet-shaped, and were considered very elegant: two or three were frequently seen together, connected by dripstones. In a short time, however, the windows became wider, and divisions and ornaments were introduced. Sometimes the same window was divided into several lights, and frequently finished at the top by a light in the form of a lozenge, circle, trefoil, or other ornament. A specimen of this style may be seen in the beautiful church of St. Saviour's, Southwark, which has lately been thrown

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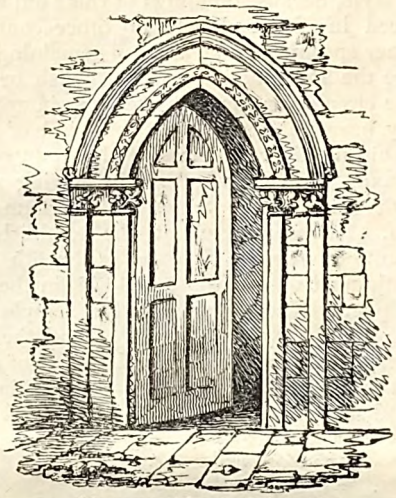
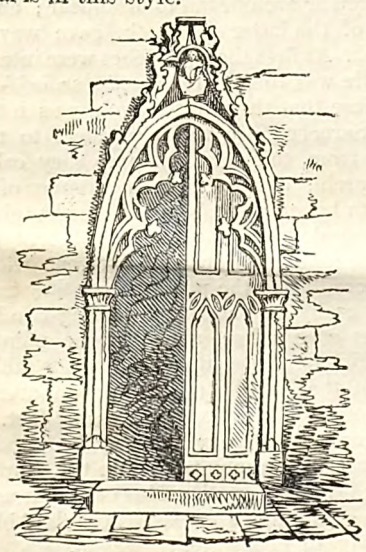
open to view by the improvements connected with the erection of the New London Bridge. The door of St. Mary's, Lincoln, is also in this style.



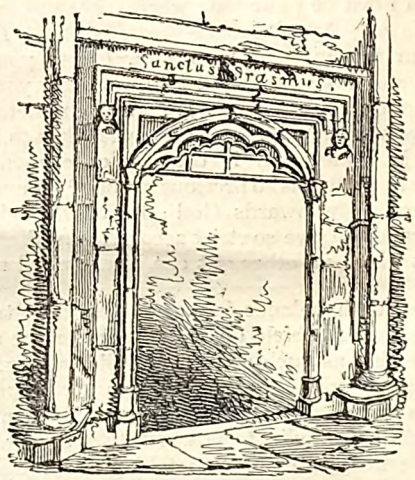
[*Door-way of Lincoln Cathedral.*]

About the year 1300, the architecture became more ornamental, and from this circumstance received the name of the *Decorated English style*, which is considered the most beautiful for ecclesiastical buildings. The windows of this style are very easily distinguished: they are large and wide, and are divided into several lights by mullions, which are upright or perpendicular narrow columns, branching out at the top into tracery of various forms, such as trefoils, circles, and other figures. York Cathedral affords a fine specimen of this sort of architecture, and there is a beautiful window of the same style in the south transept of Chichester Cathedral. The west front of that of Exeter is another specimen, and the door-way of Lincoln Cathedral is in this style.



[*Door-way of St. Mary's, Lincoln.*]

The change from the *Decorated* to the *Florid* or *Perpendicular Style*, was very gradual. Ornament after ornament was added, till simplicity disappeared beneath the extravagant additions; and about the year 1380, the architecture became so overloaded and flowery, that it obtained the title of *Florid*. This, by some persons, is called the *Perpendicular Style*, because the lines of division run in upright or perpendicular lines from top to bottom, which is not the case in any other style. King's College Chapel, Cambridge, begun in the reign of Henry VI., though not finished till some time after; Gloucester Cathedral; Henry VII.'s Chapel at Westminster; St. George's Chapel at Windsor; Wrexham Church, Denbighshire; and the Chapel on the Bridge at Wakefield, Yorkshire, are all of this character. Many small country churches are built in this style; and, their size not admitting of much ornament, they are distinguished from buildings of a later date, by mouldings running round their arches, and generally by a square head over the blunt pointed arch of the door. A peculiar ornament of this style is a flower of four leaves, called, from the family reigning at that period, the Tudor flower. Below is the entrance to St. Erasmus' Chapel, in Westminster Abbey.



[*Entrance to St. Erasmus' Chapel, Westminster.*]

From 1380, and during the reign of Henry VIII., architecture became less pure in style, though, in some cases, very elaborate in its ornaments. An intermixture of styles was introduced, and hence the appellation of the *Debased style*, the character of the architecture being inferior to that of former ages, and yearly becoming less worthy of admiration. Italian architecture was mingled with the different orders of English, and the latter were almost entirely lost sight of before the reign of Charles I. Of what is called the *Debased style* there are many specimens in the Colleges both of Oxford and Cambridge, as well as in many country churches, built about the same period.

There are many other characteristics by which a building of one period may be distinguished from that of another, even by a very casual observer; but in a hasty glance, the traveller will hardly, perhaps, have time to cast his eye upon more than one particular part of the structure. The arches of doors and windows are prominent objects, and are readily seized upon by the eye.

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THE

Saturday Magazine.

N°. 2. JULY 14, 1832. { PRICE ONE PENNY

UNDER THE DIRECTION OF THE COMMITTEE OF GENERAL LITERATURE AND EDUCATION, APPOINTED BY THE SOCIETY FOR PROMOTING CHRISTIAN KNOWLEDGE.

BOTANICAL DIVERSIONS

THE GREAT SALCEY OAK.

Circumference at the ground, 46 feet 10 inches,—at one yard high, 39 feet 10 inches.——Estimated age, 1500 years.

To the natural historian no subject is more interesting than the still life memoirs of the vegetable world. He finds no retrospects more pleasing than those which relate to woodland scenes; no task more grateful than a contemplation of those vast 'inheritors of the earth,' which adorn and beautify our groves and lawns. Among forest annals, no tree affords so many fond, so many grand memorials as the oak; no object is more sublime than this stately plant; and yet, as Pontey truly says, 'even our mushrooms are tended with a nurse's care, while the oak, the pride of our woods, the chief material of our navy, and consequently the bulwark of our country, is (too often) left to *thrive* or *rot* by *chance* unheeded, if not forgotten.' So great, indeed, has been this apathy, so extraordinary the perverseness, which has prevailed on this subject, that the destruction of our forests has actually been regarded as a matter for exultation. In one of the returns from Suffolk to the Commissioners of Land Revenue, it is stated, that 'timber is decreased in the woods and hedge-rows, as it ought to be;' and in some of our agricultural reports, oak is disparagingly mentioned as 'the *weed* of the country.' Happy is it for us who love to roam in woodland scenery, that 'on thousands of acres' the oak has been looked upon as the mere weed of the country: for it is owing principally to this, that many fragments of our ancient woods have been suffered to escape the ravages of *improvement*. The reckless system of extermination which has been pursued from age to age has indeed so grievously thinned our forest lands, that of many celebrated woods scarcely any thing but the name exists. And so great has been the havoc committed among our largest and noblest trees, that the wood-wards now consider oaks of three feet in diameter as first rates, and regard those that exceed four feet as monsters in size. Yet, notwithstanding all this rage for destruction; notwithstanding the fearful devastations which the last two centuries have witnessed, few civilized countries possess so many 'chieftain wonder trees' as our own. Perhaps no landscape feature is more missed by Englishmen abroad, especially when travelling through France, than those noble living monuments of past time, which like the woody patriarch here engraved, have given beauty to the land, and shelter to its inhabitants for many generations. This may probably be owing to the prejudice against the use of coal as fuel, which prevails so extensively abroad, and which leads to the condemnation of trees for firewood, when their caverned trunks no longer fear the axe nor dread being converted into timber.

But Time hastens to destroy even what man would spare; and within our own recollection, and the lifetime of our fathers, many of the most aged and venerable trees, such as the Nannau, the Magdalen, the Fairlop, and others, have fallen beneath his scythe; and more wait but the 'little sickle of a moment' to cut them from the roll of things that are. Of some already gone we have preserved memorial sketches; and of others that are going, we propose transferring their figures to our pages: and we likewise design to accompany this series of our most celebrated trees with short historical accounts, such as can be collected either from written documents or oral traditions.

This is a point, however, on which there is in general much obscurity attendant. Seldom until extraordinary for age or size, do forest trees excite particular

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attention; and how minute soever may be the notice of their decline, decay, and death, no chronicles are found of their early life. Of some, however, extensive memorials can be framed, but of these hereafter. Little is known of the GREAT SALCEY OAK, whose portrait we give above.

Major Rooke observes, it was perhaps the inland situation of the little forest of Salcey, ten miles from Northampton, that caused some of its majestic oaks to escape the axe, until age had secured them from the claims of the dock-yard; and of these the Great Salcey Oak is the most remarkable. Its circumference at bottom, where there are no projecting spurs, is forty-six feet ten inches; at one yard from the ground, thirty-nine feet ten inches; at two yards high, thirty-five feet nine inches; and at three yards, thirty-five feet: its circumference within the hollow of the trunk, near the ground, is twenty-nine feet; at one yard from the bottom, twenty-four feet seven inches; at two yards high, eighteen feet six inches; and at three yards from the ground, the circumference is sixteen feet two inches. Major Rooke figures this living cavern with an arched entrance on either side, closed with gates, thus forming an enclosure, in which cattle might be penned: and adds, 'From observations that have been made by naturalists on the longevity of the oak, there is reason to suppose that this tree is at least one thousand five hundred years old.'

Other oaks of this kind, though less remarkable for their size, are common in many parts of the country, and known as 'Bull Oaks' from these animals taking shelter within them, which when they are of smaller dimensions, they 'effect not by going in and turning round, but by retreating backwards into the cavity till the head alone projects at the aperture.' Mr. South describes one standing in the middle of a pasture and bearing the most venerable marks of antiquity, which gives a name compounded of itself and its situation to the farm on which it grows, viz. *Oak-ley* Farm; the hollow of this tree was long the favourite retreat of a bull. Twenty people, old and young, have crowded into it at the same time. A calf being shut up there for convenience, its dam, a two-year-old heifer constantly went in to suckle it, and left sufficient room within the trunk for milking her. It is supposed, adds he, to be near a thousand years old; the body is nothing but a shell, covered with burly protuberances; the upper part of the shaft is hollow like a chimney. It has been mutilated of all its limbs; but from their stumps arise a number of small branches, forming a bushy head, so remarkable for fertility, that in years of plenty it has produced two sacks of acorns in a season. It measures in the middle round the burls twenty-nine feet three inches, and is therefore little more than half the size of the noble Salcey Patriarch. Circumference round the stumps of the old arms thirty-one feet six inches, and in the smallest part between two and three feet from the ground, it is twenty-six feet in girth.

In the Bath Society's papers we find given the dimensions of another very grand Bull-oak, in Wedgenock park, Warwickshire; which measures at three feet from the ground, eleven yards one foot in circumference; at one foot above the ground, thirteen yards one foot; six feet from the ground, twelve yards one foot; broadest side, seven yards five inches; close to the ground, eighteen yards, one foot, seven inches; height of the trunk, only about four yards one foot. The inside quite decayed; and when the writer saw it, a cow and a sheep had sheltered themselves within it. The head was very round and flourishing.

Martyn mentions Fisher's oak, about seventeen miles from London, as a tree of enormous bulk, the trunk alone remaining of above four fathoms in compass. When King James made a progress that way, a schoolmaster of the neighbourhood and all his scholars dressed in oaken garlands, came out of this tree in great numbers, and entertained the king with an oration. They have a tradition at Tunbridge that thirteen men on horseback were once sheltered within it.

THAN a tree, a grander child earth bears not.
What are the boasted monuments of man,
Imperial column, or triumphal arch,
To forests of immeasureable extent,
Which Time confirms, which centuries waste not?
Oaks gather strength for ages, and when at last
They wane, so beauteous in decrepitude,
So grand in weakness. E'en in their decay
So venerable! 'twere sacrilege t'escape
The consecrating touch of Time. Time saw
The blossom on the parent bough. Time watch'd
The acorn loosen from the spray. Time pass'd
While springing from its swaddling shell, yon Oak,
The cloud-crown'd monarch of our woods, by thorns
Environ'd, 'scaped the raven's bill, the tooth
Of goat and deer, the school-boy's knife, and sprang
A royal hero from his nurse's arms.
Time gave it seasons, and Time gave it years,
Ages bestow'd and centuries grudg'd not:
Time knew the sapling when gay summer's breath
Shook to the roots the infant oak, which after
Tempests moved not. Time hollowed in its trunk
A tomb for centuries; and buried there
The epochs of the rise and fall of states,
The fading generations of the world,
The memory of man.—*Amænitates Quernèæ.*

TRAVELLING IN SPAIN.

[From *The Alhambra*, by WASHINGTON IRVING.]

MANY are apt to picture Spain to their imagination as a soft southern region, decked out with all the luxuriant charms of voluptuous Italy. On the contrary, though there are exceptions in some of the maritime provinces, yet, for the greater part, it is a stern melancholy country, with rugged mountains, and long sweeping plains, destitute of trees, and indescribably silent and lonesome, partaking of the savage and solitary character of Africa. What adds to this silence and loneliness is the absence of singing birds, a natural consequence of the want of groves and hedges. The vulture and the eagle are seen wheeling about the mountain cliffs, and soaring over the plains, and groups of shy bustards stalk about the heaths; but the myriads of smaller birds, which animate the whole face of other countries, are met with in but few provinces in Spain, and in those chiefly among the orchards and gardens which surround the habitations of man.

In the interior provinces the traveller occasionally traverses great tracts, cultivated with grain as far as the eye can reach, waving at times with verdure, at other times naked and sun-burnt, but he looks round in vain for the hand that has tilled the soil. At length he perceives some village on a steep hill, or rugged crag with mouldering battlements and ruined watch-tower; a strong hold, in olden times, against civil war or moorish inroad; for the custom among the peasantry of congregating together for mutual protection, is still kept up in most parts of Spain, in consequence of the maraudings of roving freebooters.

But though a great part of Spain is deficient in the garniture of groves and forests, and the softer charms of ornamental cultivation, yet its scenery has something of a high and lofty character to compensate the want. It partakes something of the attributes of its people; and I think that I better understand the proud, hardy, frugal and abstemious Spaniard, his manly defiance of hardships, and contempt of effeminate indulgences, since I have seen the country he inhabits.

There is something, too, in the sternly simple fea-

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tures of the Spanish landscape, that impresses on the soul a feeling of sublimity. The immense plains of the Castiles and of La Mancha, extending as far as the eye can reach, derive an interest from their very nakedness aud immensity, and have something of the solemn grandeur of the ocean. In ranging over these boundless wastes the eye catches sight here and there of a straggling herd of cattle attended by a lonely herdsman, motionless as a statue, with his long slender pike tapering up like a lance into the air; or beholds a long train of mules slowly moving along the waste like a train of camels in the desert; or a single herdsman, armed with a blunderbuss and stiletto, and prowling over the plain. Thus the country, the habits, the very looks of the people, have something of the Arabian charater. The general insecurity of the country is evinced in the universal use of weapons. The herdsman in the field, the shepherd in the plain, has his musket and knife. The wealthy villager rarely ventures to the market town without his trabuco, (Spanish gun) and perhaps a servant on foot with a blunderbuss on his shoulder; and the most petty journey is undertaken with the preparation of a warlike enterprise.

The dangers of the road produce also a mode of travelling resembling, on a diminutive scale, the caravans of the east. The arrieros, or carriers, congregate in convoys, and set off in large and well armed trains on appointed days; while additional travellers swell their numbers and contribute to their strength. In this primitive way is the commerce of the country carried on. The muleteer is the general medium of traffic, and the legitimate traverser of the land, crossing the peninsula from the Pyrenees and the Asturias to the Alpuxarras, the Serrania de Ronda, and even to the gates of Gibraltar. He lives frugally and hardily: his alforjas, of coarse cloth, hold his scanty stock of provisions; a leathern bottle, hanging at his saddlebow, contains wine and water, for a supply across barren mountains and thirsty plains. A mule-cloth, spread upon the ground, is his bed at night, and his pack-saddle is his pillow. His low but clean-limbed and sinewy form betoken strength; his complexion is dark and sun-burnt; his eye resolute, but quiet in its expression, except when kindled by sudden emotion; his demeanour is frank, manly, and courteous, and he never passes you without a grave salutation: "Dios guarde à usted!" "Va usted con Dios, Caballero!" "God guard you!" "God be with you, Cavalier!"

As these men have often their whole fortune at stake upon the burthen of their mules, they have their weapons at hand, slung to their saddles, and ready to be snatched out for desperate defence. But their united numbers render them secure against petty bands of marauders, and the solitary bandolero, armed to the teeth, and mounted on his Andalusian steed, hovers about them, like a pirate about a merchant convoy, without daring to make an assault.

The Spanish muleteer has an inexhaustible stock of songs and ballads, with which to beguile his incessant wayfaring. The airs are rude and simple, consisting of but few inflections. These he chaunts forth with a loud voice, and long, drawling cadence, seated sideways on his mule, who seems to listen with infinite gravity, and to keep time, with his paces, to the tune. The couplets thus chaunted, are often old traditional romances about the Moors, or some legend of a saint, or some love ditty; or, what is still more frequent, some ballad about a bold contrabandista, or hardy bandolero, for the smuggler and the robber are poetical heroes among the common people of Spain. Often the song of the muleteer is composed at the instant, and relates to some local scene, or some incident of the journey. This talent of singing and improvising is frequent in Spain, and it is said to have been inherited from the Moors. There is something wildly pleasing in listening to these ditties, among the rude and lonely scenes that they illustrate; accompanied, as they are, by the occasional jingle of the mule-bell.

It has a most picturesque effect also to meet a train of muleteers in some mountain pass. First you hear the bells of the leading mules, breaking with their simple melody the stillness of the airy height; or, perhaps, the voice of the muleteer admonishing some tardy or wandering animal, or chaunting, at the full stretch of his lungs, some traditionary ballad. At length you see the mules slowly winding along the cragged defile, sometimes descending precipitous cliffs, so as to present themselves in full relief against the sky; sometimes toiling up the deep arid chasms below you. As they approach you descry their gay decorations of worsted tufts, tassels, and saddle-cloths, while, as they pass by, the ever-ready trabuco slung behind the packs and saddles, gives a hint of the insecurity of the road.

WHAT is *true knowledge?*—Is it with keen eye
Of lucre's sons to thread the mazy way?
Is it of civic rights, and royal sway,
And wealth political, the depths to try?
Is it to delve the earth, or soar the sky,
To marshal nature's tribes in just array;
To mix, and analyse, and mete, and weigh
Her elements, and all her powers descry?
These things, who will may know them, if to know
Breed not vain-glory: but o'er all to scan
GOD, in his works and word shewn forth below;
Creation's wonders; and Redemption's plan;
Whence came we; what to do; and whither go:
This is *true knowledge*, and "the whole of man."

D. C.

IT is the prerogative of GENIUS to confer a measure of itself upon inferior intelligences. In reading the works of Milton, Bacon, and Newton, thoughts greater than the growth of our own minds are transplanted into them; and feelings more profound, sublime, or comprehensive, are insinuated amidst our ordinary train; while in the eloquence with which they are clothed, we learn a new language, worthy of the new ideas created in us. Of how much pure and exalted enjoyment is he ignorant, who never entertained, as angels, the bright emanations of loftier intellects than his own? By habitual communion with superior spirits, we not only are enabled to think their thoughts, speak their dialect, feel their emotions, but our own thoughts are refined, our scanty language is enriched, our common feelings are elevated; and though we may never attain their standard, yet, by keeping company with them, we shall rise above our own; as trees, growing in the society of a forest, are said to draw each other up into shapely and stately proportion, while field and hedge-row stragglers, exposed to all weathers, never reach their full stature, luxuriance or beauty.—JAMES MONTGOMERY.

HUMMING BIRDS.—Some idea may be formed of the advances which have been made in zoological pursuits of late years, (especially since the immense continent of the New World has been opened to European research) by the following fact. Goldsmith, in his *Animated Nature*, speaking of the humming bird, says: "Of this charming little animal there are six or seven varieties, from the size of a small wren, down to that of an humble bee." There are at this moment in the possession of the eminent nurseryman, Mr. Loddiges of Hackney, no less than one hundred and seventy distinct species of this "charming little animal."

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WILD SPORTS OF THE EAST.

We are indebted for the materials of this article, and for the engraving by which it is illustrated, to Captain Mundy's work just published by Mr. Murray, entitled *Pen and Pencil Sketches of India*.—The gallant author opens his preface with a quotation from a British sage, who has pronounced, that "every man who will take the trouble of describing in simple language the scenes of which he has been a spectator, can afford an instructing and amusing narrative." Captain Mundy has most completely verified this observation; for, by reciting, in the simple terms of a travelling journal, merely what he saw and what he did, in the course of his journey, he has produced two delightful volumes: nor must we omit to speak, in terms of admiration, of the spirited etchings by Landseer, from the author's own sketches, with which these volumes are liberally illustrated.

From the very commencement, it is evident that Capt. Mundy has, in at least an average degree, an Englishman's attachment to field-sports, to scenes of which the plates are principally devoted; and his descriptions of the gigantic huntings of the East, where the elephant is the courser, and the tiger or lion the prey, are given with a vivid pen, and all the raciness of a real amateur.

From amongst numerous descriptions of Tiger-Hunts, we select the following, as giving the most detailed account of that dangerous and adventurous sport.

"At four, P.M. (so late an hour that few of us expected any sport) Lord Combermere and nine others of our party, mounted elephants, and taking twenty pad elephants to beat the covert, and carry the guides and the game, proceeded towards the swamp pointed out as the lurking-place of the buffalo-devouring monsters.

"The jungle was in no places very high, there being but few trees, and a fine thick covert of grass and rushes. Every thing was favourable for the sport. Few of us, however, expecting to find a tiger, another man and myself dismounted from our elephants, to get a shot at a florikan, a bird of the bustard tribe, which we killed. It afterwards proved that there were two tigers within an hundred paces of the spot where we were walking. We beat for half an hour steadily in line, and I was just beginning to yawn in despair, when my elephant suddenly raised his trunk, and trumpeted several times, which my Mahout (elephant driver) informed me was a sure sign that there was a tiger somewhere 'between the wind and our nobility.' The formidable line of thirty elephants, therefore, brought up their left shoulders, and beat slowly on to windward.

"We had gone about three hundred yards in this direction, and had entered a swampy part of the jungle, when suddenly the long wished for 'Tallyho!' saluted our ears, and a shot from Capt. M. confirmed the sporting *eureka!* The tiger answered the shot with a loud roar, and boldly charged the line of elephants. Then occurred the most ridiculous but most provoking scene possible. Every elephant except Lord Combermere's, (which was a known staunch one) turned tail, in spite of all the blows and imprecations heartily bestowed upon them by the mahouts. One, less expeditious in his retreat than the others, was overtaken by the tiger, and severely torn in the hind leg; while another, even more alarmed, we could distinguish flying over the plain, till he quite sunk below the horizon. The tiger, in the meanwhile, advanced to attack his lordship's elephant, but, being wounded in the loins by Capt. M.'s shot, failed in his spring, and shrunk back among the rushes. My elephant was one of the first of the run-aways to return to action; and when I ran up alongside of Lord Combermere, (whose heroic animal had stood like a rock) he was quite *hors du combat*, having fired all his broadside. I handed him a gun, and we poured a volley of four barrels upon the tiger, who attempting again to charge, fell from weakness. Several shots more were expended upon him before he dropped dead; upon which we gave a good hearty 'whoo! whoop!" and stowed him upon a pad elephant. As Lord Combermere had for some minutes alone sustained the attack of the tiger, a three-quarters grown male, the *spolia opima* were duly awarded to him

"Having loaded and re-formed line, we again ad-

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vanced, and after beating for half-an-hour, I saw the grass gently moved about one hundred yards in front of me; and soon after, a large tiger reared his head and shoulders above the jungle, as if to reconnoitre us. I tally-ho'd, and the whole line rushed forward. On arriving at the spot, two tigers broke covert, and cantered quietly across an open space of ground. Several shots were fired, one of which slightly touched the largest of them, who immediately turned round, and roaring furiously and lashing his tail, came bounding towards us; but, apparently alarmed by the formidable line of elephants, he suddenly stopped short, and turned into the jungle again, followed by us at full speed. Those who had the fastest elephants had now the best of the sport, and when he turned to fight, (which he soon did) only three of us were up. As soon as he faced about, he attempted to spring on Capt. M.'s elephant, but was stopped by a shot in the chest. Two or three more shots brought him on his knees, and the noble beast fell dead in a last attempt to charge. He was a full-grown male, and a very fine animal. Near the spot where we found him, were discovered the well-picked remains of a buffalo.

"One of the sportsmen had, in the meantime, kept the smaller tiger in view, and we soon followed to the spot to which he had been marked. It was a thick marshy covert of broad flag leaves, and we had to beat through it twice, and were beginning to think of giving it up as the light was waning, when Capt. P.'s elephant, which was lagging in the rear, suddenly uttered a shrill cry, and came rushing out of the swamp, with the tiger hanging by his teeth to the upper part of its tail! Capt. P.'s situation was perplexing enough, his elephant making the most violent efforts to shake off his back-biting foe, and himself unable to use his gun, for fear of shooting the unfortunate Coolie, who, frightened out of his wits, was standing behind the howdah, with his feet in the crupper, within six inches of the tiger's head. We soon flew to his aid, and quickly shot the tiger, who, however, did not quit his gripe until he had received eight balls; when he dropped off the poor elephant's mangled tail quite dead. The elephant only survived ten days, but it was shrewdly suspected that his more mortal wounds were inflicted by some of the sportsmen who were over-zealous to rid him of his troublesome hanger-on.

"Thus in about two hours, and within sight of camp, we found and slew three tigers, a piece of good fortune rarely to be met with in these modern times, when the spread of cultivation, and the zeal of English sportsmen, have almost exterminated the breed of these animals. Four other sportsmen of our party returned to camp this evening, having been out for four days in a different direction, they only killed one tiger, but he was an immense beast, and was shot on the head of Colonel F.'s elephant, which he wounded severely. This is considered the acme of tiger shooting."

Capt. Mundy had not the fortune to fall in with a Lion; his account however of an adventure which befel one of his friends, illustrated by the print which accompanies this article, will be read with great interest.

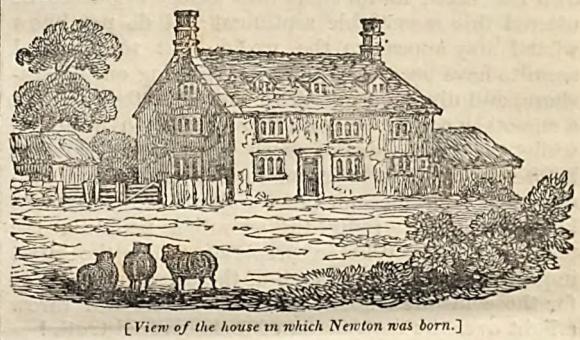
"By crack sportsmen the lion is reputed to afford better sport than the tiger: his attack is more open and certain; a peculiarity arising either from the noble nature of the Jungle King, or from the country he haunts being less favourable for a retreat than the thick swampy morasses frequented by the tiger. Col. Skinner relates many interesting anecdotes of lion-hunts, with the exploits and narrow escapes of the horsemen of his corps, who always accompanied the line of elephants into the jungle on these occasions.

"A gentleman of our party had, perhaps, as perilous an adventure with one of these animals as any one, he having enjoyed the singular distinction of lying for some moments in the very clutches of the royal quadruped. Though I have heard him recount the incident more than once, and have myself sketched the scene, yet I am not sure that I relate it correctly. The main feature, however, of the anecdote, affording so striking an illustration of the sagacity of the elephant, may be strictly depended upon.

"A lion charged my hero's elephant, and he, having wounded him, was in the act of leaning forward in order to fire another shot, when the front of the howdah suddenly gave way, and he was precipitated over the head of the elephant into the very jaws of the furious beast. The lion though severely hurt, immediately seized him, and would doubtless shortly have put a fatal termination to the conflict, had not the elephant, urged by his mahout, stepped forward, though greatly alarmed, and grasping in her trunk the top of a young tree, bent it down across the loins of the lion, and thus forced the tortured animal to quit his hold! My friend's life was thus saved, but his arm was broken in two places, and he was severely clawed on the breast and shoulders."

SIR ISAAC NEWTON,

THE most distinguished philosopher of modern times, was born in the manor-house of Woolsthorpe, a hamlet of Coltersworth, in Lincolnshire, situated six miles south of Grantham, and about a mile west of the great road from London to the North. The house stands in a pretty little hollow, on the west side of the valley of the river Witham, which rises at a short distance. This was the paternal estate of Newton, and here he was brought up and educated by his widowed mother.



[*View of the house in which Newton was born.*]

"Every memorial of so great a man," says Dr. Brewster, in *his Life of Newton*, "has been preserved and cherished with peculiar veneration. His house at Woolsthorpe has been religiously protected by Mr. Turnor of Stoke Rocheford, the proprietor. Dr. Stukeley, who visited it in Sir Isaac's lifetime on the 13th October 1721, gives the following description of it in his letter to Dr. Mead, written in 1727: 'Tis built of stone, as is the way of the country hereabouts, and a reasonable good one. They led me up stairs and showed me Sir Isaac's study, where I suppose he studied when in the country in his younger days, or perhaps when he visited his mother from the university. I observed the shelves were of his own making, being pieces of deal boxes which probably he sent his books and clothes down in on those occasions. There were some years ago two or three hundred books in it of his father-in-law, Mr. Smith, which Sir Isaac gave to Dr. Newton of our town.

"When the house was repaired in 1798, a tablet of white marble was put up by Mr. Turnor in the room where Sir Isaac was born, with the following inscription:—

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"'Sir Isaac Newton, son of John Newton, Lord of the Manor of Woolsthorpe, was born in this room on the 25th December, 1642.'

Nature and Nature's laws lay hid in night,
God said "Let Newton be," and all was Light.

"The following lines have been written upon the house:—

Here Newton dawn'd, here lovely wisdom woke,
And to a wondering world divinely spoke.
If Tully glowed, Phædrus's steps he trode,
Or fancy formed Philosophy a God;
If sages still for Homer's birth contend
The sons of Science at this dome must bend.
All hail the shrine! All hail the natal day,
Cam boasts his noon,—This *Cot* his morning ray.

"The house is now occupied by a person of the name of John Wollerton. It still contains the two dials made by Newton, but the styles of both are wanting. The celebrated apple tree, the fall of one of the apples of which is said to have turned the attention of Newton to the subject of gravity, was destroyed by wind about four years ago; but Mr. Turnor has preserved it in the form of a chair.

"The modesty of Sir Isaac Newton, in reference to his great discoveries, was not founded on any indifference to the fame which they conferred, or upon any erroneous judgment of their importance to science. The whole of his life proves, that he knew his place as a philosopher, and was determined to assert and vindicate his rights. His modesty arose from the depth and extent of his knowledge, which showed him what a small portion of nature he had been able to examine, and how much remained to be explored in the same field in which he had himself laboured. In the magnitude of the comparison he recognized his own littleness; and a short time before his death he uttered this memorable sentiment: 'I do not know what I may appear to the world; but to myself I seem to have been only like a boy playing on the sea-shore, and diverting myself in now and then finding a smoother pebble or a prettier shell than ordinary, whilst the great ocean of truth lay all undiscovered before me.' What a lesson to the vanity and presumption of philosophers,—to those especially who have never even found the smoother pebble or the prettier shell! What a preparation for the latest inquiries, and the last views of the decaying spirit,—for those inspired doctrines which alone can throw a light over the dark ocean of undiscovered truth!

"The native simplicity of Sir Isaac Newton's mind is finely pourtrayed in the affecting letter in which he acknowledges to Locke, that he had thought and spoken of him uncharitably; and the humility and candour in which he asks forgiveness, could have emanated only from a mind as noble as it was pure.

"In the religious and moral character of our author there is much to admire and imitate. While he exhibited in his life and writings an ardent regard for the general interests of religion, he was at the same time a firm believer in Revelation. He was too deeply versed in the Scriptures, and too much imbued with their spirit, to judge harshly of other men who took different views of them from himself. He cherished the great principles of religious toleration, and never scrupled to express his abhorrence of persecution, even in its mildest form. Immorality and impiety he never permitted to pass unreproved; and when Dr. Halley ventured to say any thing disrespectful to religion, he invariably checked him, and said, "I have studied these things,—you have not."

SAINT SWITHUN'S DAY.

[July 15th.]

THE circumstance of St. Swithun's name occurring in the Calendar of our Church, has given much satisfaction to PINIUS, who wrote the commentary upon his life in the *Acta Sanctorum;* and if what has been recorded of the character of St. Swithun be true, we have good reason to be proud of his having lived among us, and for retaining his name in the remembrance of our countrymen.

The chroniclers of the church of Rome tell us that St. Swithun was of noble parentage, passed his youth in innocent simplicity, in the study of grammar, philosophy, and the Holy Scriptures; and that when he was promoted to holy orders, he was an accomplished model of all virtues. His learning, piety, and prudence, induced Egbert, king of the West Saxons, to make him his priest, and to appoint him tutor to his son Ethelwolf. When Ethelwolf succeeded to the throne, he governed his kingdom in ecclesiastical matters by the prudent advice of his former tutor, whom he caused to be elected bishop of Winchester.*

William of Malmesbury says, "Though this good bishop was a rich treasure of all virtues, those in which he took most delight were humility and charity to the poor; and that in the discharge of his episcopal functions he omitted nothing belonging to the true pastor. He built divers churches and repaired others; his mouth was always open to invite sinners to repentance, and to admonish those who stood to be aware of falling. He was most severe to himself, and abstemious in his mode of living. He delighted in spiritual exercises, and in conversation would bear no discourse that did not tend to edification."

Of the man who thus adorned and blessed the church in his generation she may be truly proud, and if gratitude would suffer his name to be omitted in her calendar, the interest of religion would retain it. The name of St. Swithun therefore still adorns it,—a monument of virtue, piety, and wisdom.

He died on the 2nd day of July, 864, his body being buried by his own order in the church-yard, in order that his grave might be trodden by passers-by. Had the history of this virtuous and pious prelate here been closed, justice would have been done to his memory, and his name been retained in the remembrance of his countrymen with those feelings of respect to which he was so eminently entitled. But an over-strained anxiety to do honour to his memory, has, by the imputation of incredible wonders to the virtue of his relics, cast a shade of ridicule upon him; and he is now only known among us as a weather-gage, which is still preserved for its antiquity and our amusement.

Upon the removal of his body from the church-yard to the church, or, in the language of the monk of Malmesbury, "upon the translation of his relics," on the 15th of July, 964, "such a number of miraculous cures of all kinds were wrought as was never in the memory of man known to have been in any other place." Doubtless he speaks the truth; for not only does the catalogue exceed the powers of memory, but even the stretch of imagination.

The narrators of the traditions relative to St. Swithun, disagree in their accounts of the miracles they impute to the virtue of his relics; though they vie with each other in a desire to magnify the importance and

* "This church was first dedicated to the Holy Trinity under the patronage of St. Peter, afterwards by St. Ethelwold, in the presence of king Etheldred, St. Dunstan, and eight other bishops, to St. Swithun, as Rudburn relates in 980. King Henry VIII. in 1540 commanded this cathedral to be called no longer St. Swithun's but of the Holy Trinity."

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to increase the number of the miraculous performances fabulously imputed to him. We have, however, the following imperfect summary in the commentary on his life. "Upon the day of the translation of his relics, a boy, whose limbs had been contracted from his youth, was made whole. A woman who was imprisoned and bound in fetters was set free. A paralytic person was healed; a noble matron and three other women who were blind, were restored to sight. Twenty-five men afflicted with various diseases, were perfectly restored in one day; six and thirty sick persons coming from different places were cured within three days; and one hundred and twenty four within fourteen."

The virtue ascribed to his relics was even claimed for his statue; and further, the following legend was put forth to shew that the miraculous power of the saint was not confined to those places wherein his relics were deposited and his form exhibited.

"A certain woman," says the veracious historian, "sleeping in a house in the city of Winchester, with her door open, a wolf took her out of bed and carried her into a wood, where with dreadful howling he called other wolves to him. The woman weak from fasting and age knew not what to do, but turned herself to her prayers, invoked divine assistance and called loudly on St. Swithun. No sooner did the wolf hear this same name than he fell asleep; the woman immediately withdrew herself from him, and the animal awaking pursued her with his companions, but was incapable of hurting her whom the mercy of God and the holy bishop had undertaken to set free."

How the vulgar notion that St. Swithun exercised an influence over the weather originated it is difficult to say, for the writers who professed to give his authentic history, make no mention of the circumstance. The legend, however, whatever be its origin, is as follows:

The clergy considering it to be disgraceful that the body of the saint whose miracles were as innumerable as the sand upon the sea shore, or as the drops in the ocean, should lie in the open church-yard, resolved to remove it into the choir. This was to have been done with a procession of great solemnity upon the 15th of July. The saint, however, by no means approved of this officious interference,—and in order to prevent such a violation of the orders given in his life-time, miraculously caused it to rain so heavily on that day, and for the following forty days, as to render the attempt impossible, and it was consequently abandoned as heretical and blasphemous.

The circumstances attending this reputed miraculous interference of St. Swithun, shews the degree of credit and authority to which monkish *tradition* is entitled. Legend contradicts legend; and the popular influence of the more recent one swallows up without reserve a whole host of predecessors. To believe both is impossible: to believe either unwarrantable: and if the cause of truth did not compel us to reject a guide so fallacious as tradition here appears, we must do so as the friends of virtue and religion. The history of a wise and exemplary prelate has been defaced, its salutary influence upon society destroyed; and a record which was designed to be an example of life and instruction in manners is converted into a worse than profitless superstition.

ON BREAD.

[Abridged from M'Culloch's *Dictionary of Commerce.*]

Bread, the principal article in the food of most civilised nations, consists of a paste or dough formed of the flour or meal of different sorts of grain mixed with water, and baked. When stale dough or yeast is added to the fresh dough, to make it swell, it is said to be *leavened;* when nothing of this sort is added, it is said to be *unleavened.*

The President de Goguet has endeavoured, with his usual sagacity and learning, to trace the successive steps by which it is probable men were led to discover the art of making bread; but nothing positive is known on the subject. It is certain, however, from the statements in the sacred writings, that the use of unleavened bread was common in the days of Abraham; and that leavened bread was used in the time of Moses, for he prohibits eating the Paschal lamb with such bread. The Greeks affirmed that Pan had instructed them in the art of making bread; but they no doubt were indebted for this art, as well as for their knowledge of agriculture, to the Egyptians and Phœnicians, who had early settled in their country. The method of grinding corn by hand-mills was practised in Egypt and Greece from a very remote epoch; but for a lengthened period the Romans had no other method of making flour, than by beating roasted corn in mortars. The Macedonian war helped to make the Romans acquainted with the arts and refinements of Greece; and Pliny mentions, that public bakers were then, for the first time, established in Rome. The conquests of the Romans diffused, amongst many other useful discoveries, a knowledge of the art of preparing bread, as practised in Rome, through the whole south of Europe.

The use of yeast in the raising of bread, seems, however, to have been practised by the Germans and Gauls before it was practised by the Romans; the latter, like the Greeks, having leavened their bread by intermixing the fresh dough with that which had become stale. The Roman practice seems to have superseded that which was previously in use in France and Spain; for the art of raising bread by an admixture of yeast was not practised in France in modern times till towards the end of the seventeenth century. It deserves to be mentioned, that though the bread made in this way was decidedly superior to that previously in use, it was declared, by the faculty of medicine in Paris, to be prejudicial to health; and the use of yeast was prohibited under the severest penalties! Luckily, however, the taste of the public concurring with the interest of the bakers, proved too powerful for these absurd regulations, which fell gradually into disuse; and yeast has long been, almost everywhere, used in preference to any thing else in the manufacture of bread, to the wholesomeness and excellence of which it has not a little contributed.

The species of bread in common use in a country depends partly on the taste of the inhabitants, but more on the sort of grain suitable for its soil. But the superiority of wheat to all other farinaceous plants in the manufacture of bread is so very great, that wherever it is easily and successfully cultivated, wheaten bread is used to the nearly total exclusion of most others. Where, however, the soil or climate is less favourable to its growth, rye, oats, &c. are used in its stead. A very great change for the better has, in this respect, taken place in Great Britain within the last century. In the reign of Henry VIII, the gentry had wheat sufficient for their own tables, but their *household* and poor neighbours were usually obliged to content themselves with rye, barley, and oats. In 1596, rye bread and oatmeal formed a considerable part of the diet of servants even in great families, in the southern counties. Barley bread is stated in the grant of a monopoly by Charles I. in 1626, to be the usual food of the ordinary sort of people. At the revolution, the wheat produced in England and Wales was estimated to amount to

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1,750,000 quarters. Mr. Charles Smith, the very well informed author of the Tracts on the Corn Trade, originally published in 1758, states, that in his time wheat had become much more generally the food of the common people than it had been in 1689; but he adds, that notwithstanding this increase, some very intelligent inquirers were of opinion, that even then not more than *half* the people of England fed on wheat. Mr. Smith's own estimate, which is very carefully drawn up, is a little higher; for taking the population of England and Wales, in 1760, at 6,000,000, he supposed that

3,750,000	were consumers of wheat.
739,000	barley.
888,000	rye.
623,000	oats.

Mr. Smith further supposed that they individually consumed, the first class, 1 quarter of wheat; the second, 1 quarter and 3 bushels of barley; the third, 1 quarter and 1 bushel of rye; and the fourth, 2 quarters and 7 bushels of oats.

About the middle of last century, hardly any wheat was used in the northern counties of England. In Cumberland, the principal families used only a small quantity about Christmas. The crust of the goose-pie, with which almost every table in the county is then supplied, was, at the period referred to, almost uniformly made of barley meal.

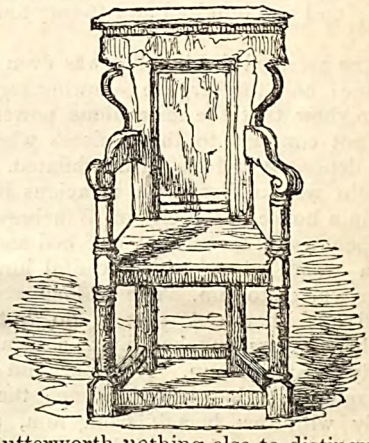
Every one knows how inapplicable these statements are to the condition of the people of England at the present time. Loaf-bread is now universally made use of in towns and villages, and almost universally in the country. Barley is no longer used, except in the distilleries and in brewing; oats are employed only in the feeding of horses; and the consumption of rye bread is comparatively inconsiderable. The produce of the wheat crops has been, at the very least, *trebled* since 1760. And if to this immense increase in the supply of wheat, we add the still more extraordinary increase in the supply of butchers' meat, the fact of a very signal improvement having taken place in the condition of the population, in respect of food, will be obvious.

But great as has been the improvement in the condition of the people of England since 1760, it is but trifling compared to the improvement that has taken place, since the same period, in the condition of the people of Scotland. At the middle of last century, Scotch agriculture was in the most depressed state; the tenants were destitute alike of capital and skill; green crops were almost wholly unknown; and the quantity of wheat that was raised was quite inconsiderable. A field of eight acres sown with this grain, in the vicinity of Edinburgh, in 1727, was reckoned so great a curiosity that it excited the attention of the whole neighbourhood! But even so late as the American war, the wheat raised in the Lothians and Berwickshire did not exceed a third part of what is now grown in them; and taking the whole country at an average, it will be a moderate estimate, to say that the cultivation of wheat has increased in a *tenfold* proportion since 1780. At that period no loaf-bread was to be met with in the country places and villages of Scotland; *oat cakes* and *barley bannocks* being universally made use of. But at present the case is widely different. The upper and also the middle and lower classes in towns and villages use only wheaten bread, and even in farm-houses it is very extensively consumed. There is, at this moment, hardly a village to be met with, however limited its extent, that has not a public baker.

In many parts of England it is the custom for private families to bake their own bread. This is particularly the case in Kent, and in some parts of Lancashire. In 1804, there was not a single public baker in Manchester; and their number is still very limited.

WICKLIFFE'S CHAIR.

THE chair here represented is that in which Wickliffe, the great precursor of the Reformation, expired.* It is still preserved in Lutterworth Church, together with the pulpit from which he was accustomed to preach, a piece of his cloak, and an oak table which belonged to him.



Had Lutterworth nothing else to distinguish it, its name would be indelibly recorded in history as having had for its rector this eminent man—eminent not only as the great forerunner of the Reformation, but as a devout and sincere Christian. "The imperfect justice," says Mr. Le Bas, in his splendid life of this great man, "hitherto rendered to the memory of Wickliffe, as a man of deep religious affections, may, in part, be the effect of that peculiar interest which attaches to his character as the antagonist of a corrupt hierarchy. We have been accustomed to regard him chiefly as the scourge of imposture—the ponderous hammer that smote the brazen idolatry of his age.... The Reformer of Christian morals has been forgotten in the Reformer of papal abuse: and thus his memory has been left open to the suggestion that he is to be honored as the antagonist of popery, not as the advocate of Christ,—fitted to join with politicians, and with princes in their resistance to encroachment, rather than to band (as he ought to be joined) with saints and confessors in bearing testimony to the truth as it is in Jesus."

* "Admirable," says Fuller, "that a hare so often hunted with so many packs of dogs should die at last, quietly sitting in his form."

ERRATUM.

No. I. page 6, col. 2, line 7, of the article on the figure 9, *for* (viz. 45) *read* (viz. 405.) This error occurs only in a few of the early copies.

THE COMMITTEE OF GENERAL LITERATURE AND EDUCATION,

In compliance with the recommendation contained in the Report read at the Special General Meeting of the SOCIETY FOR PROMOTING CHRISTIAN KNOWLEDGE, held on the 21st of May, have made arrangements for the publication of a Series of Works on Education, History, Biography, Natural History, the Elements of the Sciences, &c. particulars of which will speedily be announced.

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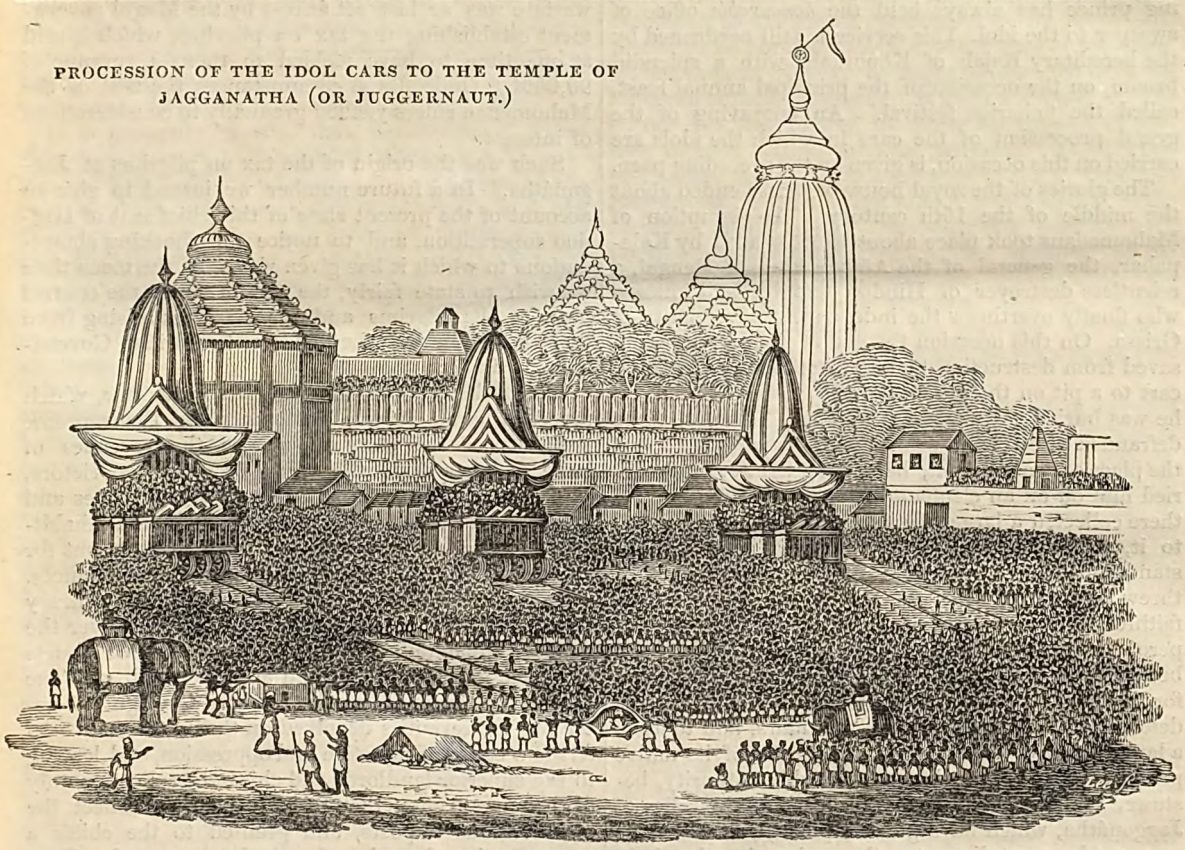
THE

Saturday Magazine.

N°. 3. JULY 21, 1832. { PRICE ONE PENNY

UNDER THE DIRECTION OF THE COMMITTEE OF GENERAL LITERATURE AND EDUCATION, APPOINTED BY THE SOCIETY FOR PROMOTING CHRISTIAN KNOWLEDGE.

PROCESSION OF THE IDOL CARS TO THE TEMPLE OF JAGGANATHA (OR JUGGERNAUT.)



Copied, by permission, from an Original Drawing, by a Native Artist, in the Museum of the Royal Asiatic Society.

THE sketch of the legend of Jagganátha in our first number, is curious as affording a specimen of the sort of fable which the credulous Hindoos receive as religious truth, and as shewing the origin and early progress of this monstrous and revolting idolatry, but it is worth little with regard to real history. In the temple of Jagganátha there is, however, a work preserved, claiming the title of a history of the Kings, stated to have been commenced more than six centuries back, and to have been regularly kept up. This work is noticed by Mr. Stirling in his valuable essay on the Geography, Statistics, and History of Orissa, in Vol. 15 of the *Asiatic Researches*, which is the source from which our account is chiefly taken.

In the ancient chronicles mention is made of the worship of Jagganátha at a very early period: for on the invasion of the kingdom of Orissa by a foreign power, in the fourth century of the Christian era, the Rajah, seized with a panic, took the image of Sri Jeo out of his temple, lodged it in a covered cart, with all its jewels and utensils, and fled to the most remote town on his western frontier. The strangers not finding the prince, plundered the town and temple, and committed great excesses every where. The Rajah's alarms increased on receiving intelligence of the proceedings of the invaders, and he buried the image under the ground, planted a tree over it, and fled to the wilds. In the succeeding century the invaders were driven out by the founder of a new dynasty, who discovered the place where Sri Jeo was buried, cut down the tree that overshadowed the spot, and found the image incased in a stone vault, much decayed and disfigured. His next care was to find out the officiating priests, descended from those who formerly fled from Pooree, and having discovered some of them, he consulted with them how the worship of Jagganátha might be revived in all its ancient splendour. The formation of a new image being considered an indispensable preliminary, the priests sought out in the woods a tree with all the requisite marks indicated by their books, as fitting it for the honour of being made into a god. They brought it to the Rajah, who, with pious zeal, clothed both it and the old image in rich robes, and conducted them to Pooree in great state. A new temple was erected on the site of the old one, which was found to be much dilapidated, and overwhelmed with sand. At the same time, the necessary officers were appointed, feasts and festivals established, and the whole country around Pooree assigned as endowments for the maintenance of the temple.

The history above referred to, which becomes more credible, as it advances to more modern dates, states the erection of the present edifices to have taken place in the reign of Rajah Anang Bhim Deo, who ascended the throne A.D. 1174. That monarch having incurred the guilt of killing a Brahmin, resolved, in expiation

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of his offence, to construct numerous temples; and he likewise expended large sums on works of public utility, as tanks, wells, and bridges. He filled the whole of the sacred land of Jagganátha with temples, the principal edifice being erected by his orders at an expense of from three to four hundred thousand pounds; the date of its completion is stated to be A.D. 1196. He enlarged the establishment, added fifteen Brahmins and fifteen Sudra priests, and gave fresh splendour to the worship by the institution of numerous feasts. In reward for the munificence of the monarch, the reigning prince has always held the *honourable* office of sweeper to the idol. This service is still performed by the hereditary Rajah of Khoordah, with a splendid broom, on the occasion of the principal annual feast, called the 'chariot festival.' An engraving of the grand procession of the cars in which the idols are carried on this occasion, is given on the preceding page.

The glories of the royal house of Orissa ended about the middle of the 16th century. An irruption of Mahomedans took place about 1558, headed by Kalapahar, the general of the Afghan king of Bengal, a relentless destroyer of Hindoo temples and images, who finally overthrew the independent sovereignty of Orissa. On this occasion the god of Pooree was again saved from destruction by hasty removal in a covered cart to a pit on the borders of the Chilka lake, where he was buried. Kalapahar was not, however, to be defrauded of so rich a prize; and having traced out the place of concealment, he dug up Sri Jeo and carried him off on an elephant as far as the Ganges. He there collected a large pile of wood, and setting fire to it, threw the idol on the burning heap. A bystander, however, snatching the image from the flames, threw it into the river, whence it was rescued by a faithful votary, who kept it in secret till the Emperor Akbar visited Orissa. That prince is said to have been impressed with so much reverence and admiration for this holy country, its temples, and Bramins, that he determined to interfere little in its affairs, and to leave a large share of authority in the hands of its native princes. The Rajah, thus reinstated in authority, bestowed his first care on the recovery of the relics of Jagganátha, which having accomplished, a new image was made according to the rules in the holy book, and again set up in the temple on a propitious day with much pomp and ceremony. About the end of the 16th century the kingdom was divided into two portions, of which that assigned to the Rajahship of Khoorda was esteemed the most important, as it included Pooree; and the king retained the hereditary office of sweeper in the temple of Jagganátha. Down to the present moment, though all political power of the Rajah of Khoorda is at an end, all deeds drawn out in the language of the country bear the date of the succession of the nominally reigning prince of that house, and are prefaced with a recital of his titles, which are in the pompous style adopted many centuries ago: "The illustrious hero, the lord of elephants, sove-
" reign of Bengal, supreme monarch over the rulers of
" the tribes of Ootkala, a divinity terrible to the wicked,
" the protector of the grants enjoyed by the pious,
" king of kings, like the lord of a thousand arms in
" the field of battle—a comet to the martial race!"

Under the Mogul government, Orissa was torn by constant wars, insurrections, and internal commotions. The Moguls were actuated by peculiar zeal against the idolatrous worship of Jagganátha, and lost no opportunity of annoying the Hindoos in the performance of their devotions at his temple, and many bloody encounters were the consequence between the two nations, in which success was often doubtful. On the whole, however, the native princes suffered the most severely, and gradually sank before the superior energy of the Moguls. The Rajahs retired to the part of Khoorda best protected by natural difficulties of access, where they built a fort and palace, and where they were found settled in 1803. During these contests in or about Pooree, the images so much venerated by the one party, and abhorred by the other, were twice or thrice carried away and concealed, until the times appeared favourable for again setting them upon their thrones in the temples. This religious warfare was at last set at rest by the Mogul government establishing the tax on pilgrims, which is said at one time to have yielded to them a revenue of 90,000*l*. Under these circumstances the zeal of the Mahomedan rulers yielded gradually to considerations of interest.

Such was the origin of the tax on pilgrims at Jagganátha. In a future number we intend to give an account of the present state of this chief seat of Hindoo superstition, and to notice the shocking abominations to which it has given rise. In the mean time we wish to state fairly, the way in which the control both of the pilgrims and the revenues arising from them has come into the hands of the British Government in India.

Under the Mahomedan and Mahratta rule, which preceded our's, it was customary for the supreme authority of the state to receive the revenues of large districts from the chiefs or great proprietors, who contracted for the payment of all the dues and taxes payable, on whatever account, by the inhabitants of their districts, not only for land rents but for all the various imposts of their system of finances.

In the collection of many ill-defined and arbitrary taxes, the greatest oppression was exercised over the helpless inhabitants, who had, moreover, no courts of justice to which they could appeal for redress. The British Government resolved, when the right of receiving the revenues devolved on them, to remove so fertile a cause of injustice and oppression, and leaving to the superior landlords and chiefs the collection only of their land rents, they forbad them to collect the other various imposts, and granted to the chiefs a compensation for what they had so resumed. On a revision of the nature of these imposts, some that were unobjectionable and necessary, such as customs on merchandize, &c. they continued to collect under definite rules and laws enacted for the purpose, and others which were burthensome to the people they altogether abolished. It was under the operation of this system that the pilgrim tax came to be collected by the British Government of the East India Company. It could not have been left in the hands of a native chief, consistently with the principles of the system generally adopted; a system which afforded the greatest relief to the native population from the unlimited exactions of their chiefs. Whether the pilgrim tax should have been among those altogether abolished or not, is a question well deserving the best consideration of a christian nation. It is however but bare justice to say, that whatever may be the guilt of continuing such a system, it does not rest upon the East India Company alone. The nation at large must bear the responsibility of having sanctioned it. The laws which regulate the collection of the pilgrim tax were passed in 1806 and 1809, and were, like other laws passed by our Indian Governments, regularly laid before Parliament, and published; and, not having been set aside or objected to, they obtained the authority of established law, under the sanction of Parliament, and are thus adopted as the acts of the British nation.

[To be continued.]

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INFANT EDUCATION.

The writer of this notice had occasion lately to visit the Infant School which has for some time been established at Exeter; and the beautiful display of moral and intellectual cultivation, exhibited by a set of little creatures, whose average age did not seem to exceed four or five years, directed his attention to Mr. Wilderspin's work on the subject.* Its perusal affords the most ample information respecting the nature and progress of a system which appears destined to be of immeasurable benefit to society; and the author's views are illustrated by such a variety of pleasing, interesting, and amusing anecdotes, that his book is really one of the most entertaining, as well as instructive, of its kind, we have ever met with.

It is generally known, that the system of *Infant Schools* originated chiefly with Mr. Wilderspin. The systems of Bell and Lancaster were, indeed, in operation; but, in them, the lowest age was seven; and Mr. Wilderspin's attention was attracted to the neglect and improper treatment of children under that age. His first essay, accordingly, to form an infant school, was limited to children between the ages of *two* and *seven*. His account of his first attempt is very amusing.

"As soon as the mothers had left the premises, I attempted to engage the attention of their offspring. I shall never forget the effect. A few, who had been previously at a dame-school, sat quietly; but the rest, missing their parents, crowded about the door. One little fellow, finding he could not open it, set up a loud cry of "Mammy! Mammy!" and in raising this delightful sound all the rest simultaneously joined. My wife, who, though reluctant at first, had determined, on my accepting the situation, to give me her utmost aid, tried with myself to calm the tumult; but our efforts were utterly in vain. The paroxysm of sorrow increased instead of subsiding; and so intolerable did it become, that she could endure it no longer, and left the room; and at length, exhausted by effort, anxiety, and noise, I was compelled to follow her example, leaving my unfortunate pupils in one dense mass, crying, yelling, and kicking against the door! I will not attempt to describe my feelings; but, ruminating on what I then considered egregious folly, in supposing that any two persons could manage so large a number of infants, I was struck by the sight of a cap of my wife's, adorned with a coloured ribbon, lying on the table; and observing from the window a clothes-prop, it occurred that I might put the cap upon it, return to the school, and try the effect. The confusion when I entered was tremendous; but on raising the pole, surmounted by the cap, all the children, to my great satisfaction, were instantly silent; and when any hapless wight seemed disposed to renew the noise, a few shakes of the prop restored tranquillity, and perhaps produced a laugh. The same thing, however, will not do long; the charms of this wonderful instrument, therefore, soon vanished, and there would have been a sad relapse, but for the marchings, gambols, and antics, I found it necessary to adopt, and which at last brought the hour of twelve, to my greater joy than can easily be conceived. Revolving these circumstances, I felt that this memorable morning had not passed in vain. I had, in fact, found the clew. It was now evident that the senses of the children must be engaged; that the great secret of training them was to descend to their level, and become a child; and that the error had been to expect in infancy what is only the product of after years."

The cap suspended on a pole was, to Wilderspin, what the falling leaves were to Newton. The principle which he deduced from that incident, became the foundation of his whole system. For the history of his experiments, and their successful results,—and of the gradual introduction of infant schools, not only over England, Scotland, and Ireland, but in different parts of our colonies, we must refer to the work itself. The narrative will be found equally striking and gratifying. The system early received the patronage of his late Majesty, by whose munificence the children belonging to the school established at Brighton continued to be annually clothed to the time of his death. In her present Majesty, as might be expected from her kind and amiable disposition, it finds a supporter. The author has been invited by many enlightened clergymen to form schools in their parishes. The Bishop of London was an early supporter of the system, and established one of the best schools now existing, in the parish of Bishopsgate. Several other bishops have warmly recommended them to the attention of the clergy of their dioceses; they are, consequently, rapidly extending in every direction, and their consequences to the character of the next and succeeding generations will, in all probability, be such as the present have not even a conception of.

Did the bulk of the population consist of persons whose minds, from their most tender years, were thus powerfully impressed with the principles of religion and morals, how different would be their state, both in respect to character and happiness, from that in which we now find them! The connexion between ignorance and crime is strikingly exhibited by the following statement. "In Berkshire, of one hundred and thirty prisoners committed to Reading gaol, and tried at the Special commission in 1831, twenty-five only could write; thirty-seven could read only; and seventy-six could neither write nor read; and yet one hundred and twenty were under forty years of age—varying from eighteen to thirty-five. Of the thirty prisoners tried at Abingdon, six could read and write; eleven could read a little; the remainder were wholly uneducated. In Buckinghamshire, of the seventy-nine prisoners convicted at Aylesbury, only thirty could read and write. In Hampshire, of three hundred and thirty-two committed for trial at Winchester, one hundred and five could neither read nor write; and nearly the whole number were destitute of the rudiments of knowledge. In Kent, about half the prisoners committed to Maidstone gaol were unable to read or write; and nearly the whole were totally ignorant of the nature and obligations of religion. In Sussex, of fifty prisoners put on trial at Lewes, thirteen only could read and write; twelve could read a little; only *one* could read well!"

The prejudice, that education unfits the working classes for the duties which belong to their rank in life, once so prevalent, is rapidly passing away. The most ample experience is daily shewing its utter fallacy. "We are ourselves," says Mr. Wood of Edinburgh, (whose inestimable labours are well known to all who take any interest in the course of education) "yearly sending out from the Sessional School multitudes of persons who become shoemakers and tailors, and are daily receiving from their masters the most gratifying assurances of the manner in which they conduct themselves. Their industry and skill in their various occupations seem to be in direct proportion to their success in school; and those who have been fortunate enough to get our best scholars, have been known to inquire whether we have any of the like description to give them. Our greatest proficients are still content to 'dwell among their own

* Early Discipline Illustrated · by Samuel Wilderspin. Westley and Davis, 1 vol. small 8vo

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people,' and to follow the occupations of their fathers." Though the infant schools are calculated to produce the greatest amount of good in their application to the working classes, in whose character, indeed, they promise to effect a total revolution, yet nobody who has witnessed their admirable effect in an early but not premature unfolding of the youthful mind, and in accustoming it to submit to discipline and authority, can fail to wish the same system practised in the education of every class. Its advantages awakened the attention of the higher ranks in Edinburgh, many of whom were anxious that their children should share in the benefits conferred on the children of the poor. Accordingly, a school for the children of the higher classes was established by Mr. Wilderspin in that city; and we have means of knowing, that it has gone on very successfully. It does not appear, however, that schools of this kind have as yet become numerous. Parents, in the higher ranks, are still not sufficiently aware of the inestimable benefits of which, by their negligence in this respect, they are depriving their offspring.

THE CHURCH BELLS.

What varying sounds from yon grey pinnacles
Sweep o'er the ear, and claim the heart's reply!
Now the blithe peal of home festivity,
Natal or nuptial, in full concert swells:
Now the brisk chime, or voice of alter'd bells,
Speaks the due hour of social worship nigh:
And now the last stage of mortality
The deep dull toll with lingering warning tells.
How much of human life those sounds comprise;
Birth, wedded love, God's service, and the tomb!
Heard not in vain, if thence kind feelings rise,
Such as befit our being, free from gloom
Monastick,—pray'r that communes with the skies,
And musings mindful of the final doom.

D. C. *July*, 1832.

HISTORY OF BELLS.

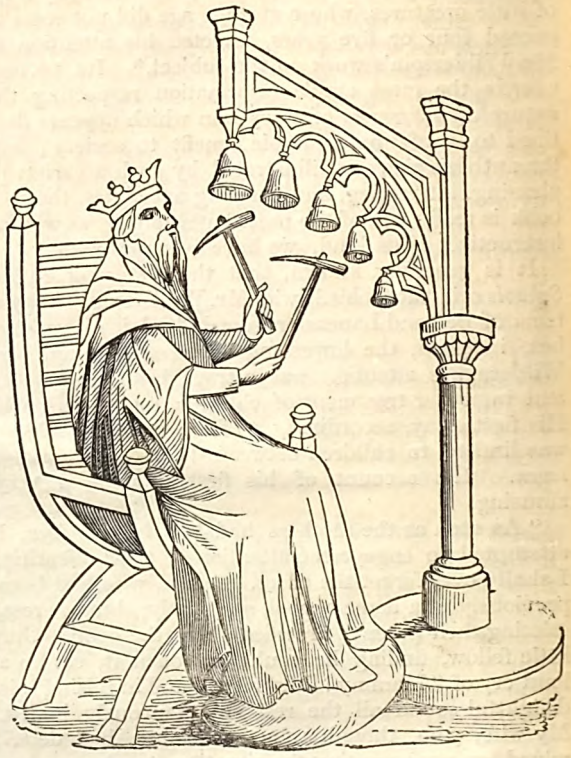
[Abridged from FAULKNER'S *History of Kensington.*]

THE origin of church bells, is an interesting subject of enquiry. The ancients, as we learn from the direct and incidental mention of them, by the old historians and other writers, had bells for both sacred and profane purposes. By Strabo we are told that market-time was announced by their sound; and by Pliny, that the tomb of an ancient king of Tuscany was hung round with bells. The hour of bathing was made known in ancient Rome by the sound of a bell; the night watchman carried one, and it served to call up the servants in great houses. Sheep had them tied about their necks to frighten away wolves, or rather by way of amulet. In our own day this custom, like many others, serves to remind us of former times.

Paulinus, Bishop of Nola, is generally considered as the first person who introduced bells into ecclesiastical service, about the year 400. And we are told by ancient historians, that in the year 610, the Bishop of Orleans, being at Sens, then in a state of siege, frightened away the besieging army by ringing the bells of St. Stephen's church; which is a clear proof that they were not at that time generally known in France.

The first large bells are mentioned by Bede in the year 680. Before that period the early British Christians made use of wooden rattles to call the congregation of the faithful together.

Handbells probably first appeared at religious processions, and were afterwards used by the secular musicians. The small bells were not always held in the hand; they were sometimes suspended upon a stand, and struck with hammers. The annexed figure, which affords a curious example of this kind, is taken from a manuscript of the fourteenth century: it is intended as a representation of King David, and is affixed to one of his Psalms.



The arrival of kings, and great personages, was anciently greeted by ringing the church bells.

Ingulphus, Abbot of Croyland, who died about 1109, speaks of them as being well known in his time, and says that "the first Abbot of Croyland gave six bells to that monastery, that is to say, two great ones, which he named Bartholomew and Beladine; two of a middling size, called Turketullum and Beterine; two small ones, denominated Pega and Bega; he also caused the great bell to be made called Gudla, which was tuned to the other bells, and produced an admirable harmony not to be equalled in England."

The bells used in the monasteries were sometimes rung with ropes having brass or silver rings at the ends for the hand; they were anciently rung by the priests themselves, afterwards by the servants, and sometimes by those incapable of other duties, as persons who were blind.

In the flourishing days of Popery, bells were actually *baptized*, and anointed with the Chrism, or holy oil! They were also exorcised and blessed by the bishop, from a belief, that when these ceremonies had been performed, they had power to drive the devil out of the air, to calm tempests, and to keep away the plague. The ritual for these ceremonies is contained in the Roman Pontifical, and is still used in Roman Catholic countries, where it is usual to give the bells the name of some saint, as was formerly done in England.

The exploded doctrine of the church of Rome concerning bells is, that they have merit, and pray God for the living and the dead; secondly, that they produce devotion in the hearts of the faithful.

The dislike of evil spirits to bells is extremely well expressed by Wynken de Worde in the *Golden Legend.*

The passing bell was anciently rung for two purposes, one to bespeak the prayers of all good Chris-

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tian people for a soul just departing, the other to drive away the evil spirits who stood at the bed's foot, or about the house. Hence, perhaps, exclusive of the additional labour, was occasioned the high price demanded for tolling the greatest bell of the church, for that being loudest, the evil spirits might go further off to be clear of the sound.

Such was the general opinion respecting the efficacy of bells before the Reformation; but since that period "it has been the usual course in the Church of England, and it is a very laudable one, that when any sick person lay drawing on, a bell should toll to give notice to the neighbours, that they might pray for the dying party, which was commonly called a passing bell, because the sick person was passing hence to another world; and when his breath was expired, the bell rung out, that the neighbours might cease their prayers, for that the party was dead." It is now only tolled after death.

The saint's bell was not so called from the name of the saint that was inscribed on it, or of the church to which it belonged, but because it was always rung out when the priest came to that part of the service, "*Sancte, Sancte, Sancte, Domine Deus Sabaoth;*" purposely that those persons who could not come to church, might know in what a solemn office the congregation were, at that instant, engaged, and so, even in their absence, be once, at least, moved, "to lift up their hearts to Him that made them."

"Bells," says Dr. Fuller, "are no effectual charm against lightning. The frequent firing of abbey churches, by lightning, confuteth the proud motto commonly written on the bells in their steeples, wherein each intitled itself to a six-fold efficacy, viz.

Men's death I tell, by dollfull knell,
Lightning and thunder, I break asunder,
On Sabbath all, to church I call,
The sleepy head, I raise from bed,
The winds so fierce, I do disperse,
Men's cruel rage, I do assuage.

Whereas it appears that abbey steeples, though quilted with bells almost cap-à-piè, were not proof against the sword of God's lightning. Yea, generally, when the heavens in tempests did strike fire, the steeples of abbeys proved often their timber, whose frequent burnings portended their final destruction."

"It has anciently been reported," observes Lord Bacon, "and is still received, that extreme applauses and shouting of people assembled in multitudes, have so rarified and broken the air, that birds flying over have fallen down, the air not being able to support them; and it is believed by some, that great ringing of bells, in populous cities, hath chased away thunder, and also dissipated pestilent air. All which may be also from the concussion of the air, and not from the sound."

Ever since the introduction of bells, the English have been distinguished for their proficiency in the art of ringing, and for their partiality to this amusement.

The following are the weights of the principal bells in Europe:—

Empress Anne's, Moscow	lbs. 432,000
Boris Godinuf's, ditto	288,000
Novogorod Great Bell	70,000
Amboise Bell, Rouen	40,000
Vienna Bell, cast from Turkish cannon	40,200
Erfurt, Prussian Saxony	30,000
Great Tom of Oxford	18,000
St. Paul's, London	11,400
Ghent, Flanders	11,000
Great Tom of Lincoln	10,400
Worcester Great Bell	6,600
York ditto	6,600
Gloucester ditto	6,000

A CHILD'S EVENING PRAYER.

BY SAMUEL TAYLOR COLERIDGE.

[The following simple and beautiful lines were composed by the great poet above-named, for the use of his daughter when a child. A very little ingenuity will be sufficient to make such alterations as may be necessary to suit the prayer to the circumstances of every fireside.]

ERE on my bed my limbs I lay,
God grant me grace my prayers to say;—
O God! preserve my mother dear
In strength and health for many a year;
And, O! preserve my father too,
And may I pay him reverence due,—
And may I my best thoughts employ
To be my parents' hope and joy;
And O! preserve my brothers both
From evil doings and from sloth,
And may we always love each other,
Our friends, our father, and our mother:—
And still, O Lord, to me impart
An innocent and grateful heart,
That after my last sleep I may
Awake to thy eternal day! Amen.

ON THE BLACK PESTILENCE OF THE FOURTEENTH CENTURY.

OF all the great diseases, the remembrance of which has been preserved to us by history, the *black pestilence* of the fourteenth century is that which caused the greatest ravages. In some respects there exists an analogy between the disease of which we are speaking, and the ASIATIC CHOLERA. The name of '*black* pestilence' seems to point out to us, in the scourge to which it was applied, something similar to the discoloration of those who have died of the Cholera. Indeed many persons are of opinion, that the scourge, which in the present day has already swept off many millions, is only a new appearance of that which prevailed in the fourteenth century. It is of importance to ascertain whether this supposition is well founded. At all events, it is well to know the nature of that terrible instrument of death, which Divine Providence permitted to rage from the extremity of the east, to the western limits of the then known world. Professor Hecker, of Berlin, has just published a volume on this subject, in which he attempts, not only to answer the question as to the sameness of the two diseases, but also to solve many others, relative to the influence produced by the great scourge of the middle age. We therefore select a few of the details collected by M. Hecker, for the information of our readers.

In the first place, the documents which he has brought together, prove that the black pestilence was in fact the plague of the east, but with some additional features. Besides the swellings under the arm-pits, and in the groin, and the gangrenous tumours which characterize the plague, numerous black spots were observed over the whole surface of the body; the palate and tongue were black, and, as it were, filled with blood; and the patients were tormented with insatiable thirst. But the most distinguishing and aggravated feature of the black pestilence, was the thorough alteration experienced by the lungs. These organs were struck with a gangrenous inflammation, which was indicated by acute pains in the chest, spitting of blood, and such an infection of the breath, that parents even fled from their children. The disorder was communicated, not only by contact with the infected patients, but also by touching any thing which had belonged to them. It was even imagined that the disorder was imparted by a glance or look—an error which may be ascribed either to the extraordinary lustre of the eyes, or to the belief in fascination which anciently prevailed.

The black pestilence did not advance westward by

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the same route as the Cholera. Originating in Upper Asia—as the Cholera also originated, (and it is also said, in China) the black pestilence descended towards the Caucasus and the Mediterranean Sea; and instead of entering Europe through Russia, it first spread over the south, and after devastating the rest of Europe, it entered that country. It followed the caravans, which came from China across Central Asia, until it reached the shores of the Black Sea: thence it was conveyed by ships to Constantinople, the centre of commercial intercourse between Asia, Europe, and Africa. That capital was certainly the focus whence the pestilence darted its poisonous rays in every direction, except towards Muscovy. In the year 1347 it reached Sicily, some of the maritime cities of Italy, and Marseilles. In the following year, it spread from the European shores of the Mediterranean into the interior of the continent. The northern part of Italy, France, Germany, and England, were invaded by it in the same year; the northern kingdoms of Europe in 1349; and finally, Russia, in 1351,—that is to say, four years after it reached Constantinople.

In France, the pestilence advanced by Avignon, at that time the seat of the papacy. It broke out there in a frightful manner: many persons fell down suddenly, as if they had been struck by a thunderbolt. The patients rarely reached the third day: as soon as any one found himself affected with tumours, either in the groin, or beneath the arms, he bade adieu to the world, and sought consolation only in the absolution granted to all the dying by Pope Clement VI, who arrogantly declared in a Bull, that God had given him the empire of heaven and earth.

In England, the disorder was characterized, as it had been at Avignon, by an almost sudden mortality, consequent on the spitting of blood. The patients who exhibited this symptom sunk under the pestilence in twelve hours, and rarely survived to the second day. The malady spread rapidly throughout the country, and covered it with the dead. (Ireland, however, at that time, suffered very little.) On the north seas—as previously on the Mediterranean, vessels were seen floating at the pleasure of the winds, deprived of their whole crews, and carrying only corpses.

The following estimates, which may be relied on as pretty correct, will give an idea of the losses sustained by the population of Europe at that time.

	Inhabitants.		*Inhabitants.*
Florence lost.....	60,000	Strasburg	16,000
Venice	100,000	Basle.....	14,000
Marseilles (in 1 month)	56,000	Erfurth* (at least)...	16,000
Paris	50,000	London (at least)...	100,000
Avignon.....	60,000	Norwich	50,000

About 200,000 country towns or villages were completely depopulated. At Paris, 500 patients died every day at the Hôtel-Dieu. Italy, we are informed, lost at least one half of her inhabitants. At Cairo, during the height of the pestilence, ten or twelve thousand died daily. In Mohammedan countries, on the great roads, and in the caravanserais, nothing was seen but deserted corpses.

If, notwithstanding all the progress made in the natural sciences, the doctors of the nineteenth century have failed in ascertaining what are the causes of the Cholera, how much more reason have we to acknowledge our ignorance of the causes of the black pestilence. M. Hecker, however, has found in the history of the fourteenth century some facts which he thinks may be applied to explain the causes of its appearance. He considers that it was principally caused by great commotions in the interior parts of the globe. The following are some of the remarkable circumstances which he has collected from the history of that time.

About the year 1333, numerous earthquakes and volcanic eruptions did much mischief in Upper Asia, which in the year after successively appeared in Greece, Italy, France, and Germany. To these convulsions of the earth were added extraordinary inundations, which drowned the harvests, and loaded the atmosphere with moisture. These were succeeded by barren years, scarcity, famine, and great mortality. Clouds of locusts invaded the plains of Europe, and covered them with their dead bodies, which poisoned the air with putrid exhalations. And lastly, dense mists, emitting a disagreeable smell, spread over whole countries, in consequence of which the inhabitants were exposed to various accidents.

It will be readily admitted that facts like these must produce an injurious effect upon the health of the generations that were contemporary with them; but are they sufficient to account for the deadly malady which shortly after manifested itself? In order to answer this question, we ought to know, at least, whether there is any constant proportion between the supposed causes of the black pestilence, and the intensity of this scourge in the different countries which it devastated. M. Hecker's opinion, however, does not differ from that entertained by many physicians who lived in those times. The faculty of Paris, which was consulted on that occasion, assigned a mist or fog as the cause of the evil, and recommended the lighting of fires with aromatic plants. A learned man of Padua, attributed the pest to an occult quality of the atmosphere. A physician of Avignon, ascribed it (as some medical men in France in our day have done) to influences arising from the earth. In short, they knew at that time nearly as much as we do now, concerning the real causes of this great pestilence; and many doctors endeavoured to account for them by having recourse to astrology.

Nothing is more afflicting than the details which have been transmitted to us of the moral effects produced by the black pestilence upon the generation who witnessed it. There doubtless were some happy exceptions; but, among the majority, this scourge called forth only a manifestation of selfishness, frequently the most revolting, together with superstitious practices and fanatical excesses. Then, as we have recently witnessed in France, the people began by ascribing to poison the almost sudden deaths which they witnessed. The fanaticism of that age directed their suspicions against the Jews, who were the objects of general hatred, and whose riches moreover excited the cupidity of their enemies. Europe then presented one of the most frightful spectacles that can be conceived. The hapless Jews were seized, tortured, condemned, and burnt; in most cases the people did not wait for a judicial sentence, but themselves massacred the Israelites. They were heaped up by thousands in vast funeral piles. At Mayence, after a vain attempt at resistance, they shut themselves up in their quarters, to which they set fire, and *twelve thousand perished!* Pursued by the people—by the magistrates, who ought to have protected them, and by the feudal lords, these miserable strangers found no asylum but in Lithuania, where Casimir the Great granted them his protection. This circumstance accounts for the great numbers of Jews who are still found in Poland.

While professing Christians thus avenged upon the ancient people of God that chastisement with which the same God had punished them, they, on the other hand, endeavoured to appease the divine displeasure,

* This city, which at that time was one of the most commercial places in Germany, never recovered this blow.

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not by sincere repentance, whereby they forsook sin, but by practices which cost the heart no sacrifice, and which have no other effect but that of lulling the conscience to sleep. Numerous companies of penitents spread over Europe, and among the processions which they made, those of the flagellants were particularly remarkable. Their name is celebrated in the history of those times for the disorders and crimes which they committed.

WHICH WAS THE GREATER FOOL?

In a sermon, preached by Bishop Hall, upon his eightieth birthday, he relates the following story.

"There was a certain lord who kept a *fool* in his house; as many a great man did in those days for their pleasure: to whom this lord gave a staff, and charged him to keep it, till he should meet with one who was a *greater* fool than himself; and if he met with such a one, to deliver it over to him.

"Not many years after, his lord fell sick; and indeed was sick unto death. His fool came to see him; and was told by his sick lord, that he must now shortly leave him. 'And whither wilt thou go?' said the fool. 'Into another world,' said the lord. 'And when wilt thou come again? within a month?'—'No.' 'Within a year?'—'No.'—'When then?'—'Never.'—'Never! and what provision hast thou made for thy entertainment there whither thou goest?'—'None at all.'—'No?' said the fool, 'none at all? Here, take my staff then. Art thou going away for ever, and hast taken no order, whence thou shalt never return? take my staff, for I am not guilty of any such folly as this.'"

THE MYSTERIES OF CREATION.

The designs of supreme intelligence in the creation and preservation of the insect world, and the regulations and appointments whereby their increase or decrease is maintained, and periodical appearance prescribed, are among the most perplexing considerations of natural history. That insects are kept in reserve for stated seasons of action, we know, being commonly made the agents of Providence in his visitations of mankind. The locust, the caterpillar, the palmer worm, the various family of blights, that poison in the spring all the promise of the year, are insects. Mildew, indeed, is a vegetable; but the wire worm destroys the root, and strips the germs of the wheat, and hunger and famine ensue. Many of the coleopteræ remove nuisances, others again incumbrances, and worms manure the soil; but these are trite and isolated cases in the profusion of the animal world; and left alone as we are in the desert of mere reason and conjecture, there is no probability that much satisfactory elucidation will be obtained. They are not perhaps important objects of enquiry; but when we see the extraordinary care and attention, that has been bestowed upon this part of creation, our astonishment is excited, and forces into action that inherent desire in our minds to seek into hidden things. In some calm summer s evening ramble, we see the air filled with sportive animated beings; the leaf, the branch, the bark of the tree, every mossy bank, the pool, the ditch, all teeming with animated life, with a profusion, an endless variety of existence; each creature pursuing its own separate purpose in a settled course of action, admitting of no deviation or substitution, to accomplish or promote some ordained object. Some appear occupied in seeking for the most appropriate stations for their own necessities, and exerting stratagems and wiles to secure the lives of themselves or their offspring against natural or possible injuries, with a forethought equivalent or superior to reason; others in some aim we can little perceive, or, should some flash of light spring up, and give us a momentary glimpse of nature's hidden ways, immediate darkness closes round, and renders our ignorance more manifest. We see a wonderfully fabricated creature struggling from the cradle of its being, just perfected by the elaboration of months or years, and decorated with a vest of glorious splendour; it spreads its wings to the light of heaven, and becomes the next moment, perhaps, with all its marvellous construction, instinct and splendour, the prey of some wandering bird! and human wisdom and conjecture are humbled to the dust. That these events are ordinations of supreme intelligence, for wise and good purposes, we are convinced. But we are blind beyond thought, as to secondary causes; and admiration, that pure source of intellectual pleasure, is almost alone permitted to us. If we attempt to proceed beyond this, we are generally lost in the mystery with which the divine Architect has thought fit to surround his works; and perhaps our very aspirations after knowledge increase in us a sense of our ignorance: every deep investigator into the works of nature can scarcely possess other than an humble mind.—*Journal of a Naturalist.*

CAUSE AND EFFECT.

When the connection of events with each other is unknown, ignorance refers them to what is called "Chance;" and superstition, which is ignorance in another form, to the immediate agency of some superior malevolent or benevolent being: but philosophy endeavours to discover the foregoing link in the chain of events.

Near to the Hartz mountains in Germany, a gigantic figure has, from time immemorial, occasionally appeared in the Heavens. It is indistinct, but always resembles the form of a human being. Its appearance has ever been considered a certain indication of approaching misfortune. It is called the Spectre of the Brocken (the name of the hill). It has been seen by many travellers. In speaking of it, M. Jordan says, "In the course of my repeated tours through the Hartz mountains, I often, but in vain, ascended the Brocken, that I might see the spectre. At length, on a serene morning, as the sun was just appearing above the horizon, it stood before me, at a great distance, towards the opposite mountain. It seemed to be the gigantic figure of a man. It vanished in a moment." In September 1796, the celebrated Abbé Haüy visited this country. He says, "After having ascended the mountain for thirty times, I at last saw the spectre. It was just at sunrise in the middle of the month of May, about four o'clock in the morning. I saw distinctly a human figure of a monstrous size. The atmosphere was quite serene towards the east. In the south west a high wind carried before it some light vapours which were scarcely condensed into clouds, and hung round the mountains upon which the figure stood. I bowed: the colossal figure repeated it. I paid my respects a second time, which was returned with the same civility. I then called the landlord of the inn, and having taken the same position which I had occupied before, we looked towards the mountain, when we clearly saw two such colossal figures, which, after having repeated our compliment, by bending their bodies, vanished."

Now for an explanation of this appearance. "When the rising sun throws his rays over the Brocken upon the body of a man standing opposite to fleecy clouds, let the beholder fix his eye steadily upon them, and in all probability he will see his own shadow extending the length of five or six hundred feet, at the distance of about two miles from him."

Dr. Arnot, in his work on Physics, says, "It hap-

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pened once on board a ship sailing along the coast of Brazil, 100 miles from land, that the persons walking on deck, when passing a particular spot, heard most distinctly the sound of bells, varying as in human rejoicings. All on board listened and were convinced; but the phenomenon was mysterious and inexplicable. The different ideas which this would excite in the minds of ignorance and intelligence, may be easily conceived. Some months afterwards it was ascertained that at the time of observation the bells of St. Salvador, on the Brazilian coast, had been ringing on the occasion of a festival. The sound, therefore, favoured by a gentle wind, had travelled over 100 miles of smooth water; and striking the wide spread sail of a ship, rendered concave by a gentle breeze, had been brought to a focus, and rendered perceptible."

B. MONTAGU'S *Selections.*

BLACK LEAD MINE.

FEW persons are, perhaps, aware, that there is only one mine of this kind in England. It is situated on the side of Seatallor Fell, a lofty mountain in Cumberland, about eight miles south of Keswick. The view represents the house erected at the entrance for the residence of the overseer.

View of the Black Lead Mine, at Borrowdale.

The period when this mine was discovered is unknown, but it was certainly worked previous to the seventeenth century, and has been occasionally open ever since. The mineral has also been found in Ayrshire, Inverness-shire, and in foreign countries, but of a very inferior quality.

Various names have been given to the mineral found here, but as many of them denote other substances, they do not appear very appropriate. It is called on the spot, *wad*, and in other places *plumbago*, or black lead, though lead, properly so called, forms no part of its composition. The terms *black cawke* and *graphite* have likewise been applied to it, though it is actually carbonate of iron, consisting of 90 parts of charcoal and 10 of iron. It is principally used for the manufacture of pencils, great quantities of which are made at Keswick; but is also employed in making crucibles, polishing iron, diminishing the friction of machinery, &c.

The mine was formerly worked only at intervals, a sufficient quantity being procured in a short time to last for several years; but the market being considerably extended, and the difficulty of finding the mineral increased, the working has lately been carried on more constantly.

The wad is not found in veins, but in irregular masses, some of which weigh as much as four or five pounds. Many of these pieces are of little value, being hard and gritty; but those which are soft and of fine texture are worth several guineas a pound. These masses are usually found in the form of a tree, the trunk being of the finest quality, and the branches inferior to it. When taken out of the mine, the wad is sorted according to its various qualities, and the best sent to London, where it is sold to the dealers once a month. The pencil-makers of Keswick receive their supply from the metropolis, as the proprietors of the article will not allow any to be sold till it has been deposited in their own warehouse.

In order to make pencils, the black lead is sawed into square slips, which are fitted into a groove made in a piece of wood, and another slip of wood glued over them. A soft wood, such as cedar, is usually employed for the purpose, that the pencil may be more easily cut. In the ever-pointed pencils, the lead is formed in the shape of small cylinders instead of square slips.

The inferior pencils, hawked about at a cheap rate, are made of the refuse of the mineral, stirred into melted sulphur. They may be detected by holding them to a candle, or to a red hot iron, when they yield a bluish flame, with a strong smell, resembling that of burning brimstone. Pure black lead produces neither smell nor fume, and suffers no apparent alteration in a moderate heat.

EGGS.

THE eggs of hens are those most commonly used as food; and form an article of very considerable importance in a commercial point of view. Vast quantities are brought from the country to London and other great towns. Since the peace they have also been very largely imported from the Continent. At this moment, indeed, the trade in eggs forms a considerable branch of our commerce with France, and affords constant employment for a number of small vessels!

It appears from official statements, that the eggs imported from France amount to about 60,000,000 a year; and supposing them to cost, at an average, 4*d.* a doz. it follows that the people of the metropolis and Brighton (for it is into them that they are almost all imported) pay the French above 83,000*l.* a year for eggs; and supposing that the freight, importers' and retailers' profit, duty, &c. raise their price to the consumer to 10*d.* a dozen, their total cost will be 213,000*l.* —The duty, in 1829, amounted to 22,189*l.*

M'CULLOCH'S *Commercial Dictionary.*

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